BUILT TO SPILL? AN EMPIRICAL EXAMINATION OF EXECUTIVE FUNCTIONING AND WORK-FAMILY SPILLOVER

by

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(Under the Direction of Malissa Clark)

ABSTRACT

Theories of work-family spillover implicate cognitive functioning as a crucial resource used to manage demands in work and family domains. Executive functioning (EF) is one such resource, comprising the higher-order cognitive processes that underlie goal-directed behavior and self-regulation across life domains. Despite being implicated in numerous theories of work-family spillover and boundary management, the direct relationship between EF and work-family spillover has not been empirically examined. This dissertation provides the first direct test of that relationship using two waves of the Midlife in the United States (MIDUS) study, examining main effects of EF on work-family spillover as well as moderation by gender and social support. Across both samples (MIDUS 2: N = 1,289; MIDUS 3: N = 729), executive functioning showed no consistent main or interactive effect on spillover. Multiverse analyses spanning four arms of different model specifications and sample inclusion criteria confirmed that the few significant effects that did emerge did not consistently replicate across study waves and modeling decisions. Several explanations for the null EF findings are provided, including a mismatch between the BTACT's measurement of foundational executive capacity and the self-regulatory applications most relevant to spillover, restriction of range due to the absence of clinically meaningful

executive dysfunction in the analytic sample, and the limitations of between-person designs for capturing inherently within-person processes. The findings suggest that interventions should target situational demands and social support resources to reduce work-family spillover.

INDEX WORDS: Work-Family Spillover, Executive Functioning, MIDUS, Multiverse Analysis

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CHAPTER 1

INTRODUCTION

The modern workplace has experienced numerous changes in recent years, making the boundaries between one's work and personal life increasingly blurred. This interplay between work and non-work has been a topic of interest in the organizational sciences given the negative and positive outcomes that can result from employees simultaneously juggling their professional responsibilities and non-work obligations (Allen et al., 2020; Hetrick et al., 2023). Work-to-family and family-to-work spillover are common phenomena that describe how experiences and responsibilities in one domain (e.g., one's work or family life) both positively and negatively affect the other (Grzywacz & Marks, 2000). Spillover between domains has been shown to predict a wide range of outcomes for both workers and organizations, such as job satisfaction (Lourel et al., 2009), marital quality (Sandberg et al., 2013), employee well-being (Haar et al., 2014; Ilies et al., 2015), and job performance (Keene & Reynolds, 2005; Wayne et al., 2017). As organizations continue to evolve, understanding the factors that contribute to all types of work-to-family and family-to-work spillover becomes paramount, not just for the well-being of employees but also for organizational health and productivity.

The work-family literature underscores the important role that attention, decision-making, and planning play when workers strategize on how to maintain balance between their work and non-work responsibilities, thereby managing spillover effects between domains (Powell & Greenhaus, 2006; Radcliffe & Cassell, 2014). For example, individuals must make decisions on whether to fully integrate their work and non-work lives (e.g., taking work calls

during family dinners or grocery planning during work hours) or attempt to keep them separate (e.g., maintaining strict boundaries between work hours and personal time, or using separate phones for work and personal communication), with different outcomes potentially resulting from the type of strategy workers implement (Kossek & Lautsch, 2018; Michel & Hargis, 2008). Regardless of the strategies an individual uses, achieving "satisfaction and good functioning at work and at home, with a minimum of role conflict" (Clark, 2000, p. 751) puts a large and "enduring" mental toll on workers (Dean et al., 2022, p. 13).

The core cognitive functions responsible for "taking the time to think before acting; meeting novel, unanticipated challenges; resisting temptations; and staying focused" (Diamond, 2013a, p. 135) when having to simultaneously attend to work and non-work responsibilities are referred to as executive functions (EFs). Executive functions are a collection of higher order cognitive processes that facilitate managing competing demands and navigating the complexities of everyday life, such as preventing work responsibilities from negatively affecting one's family life or vice versa. While the term "executive functions" refers to several different interconnected cognitive processes, most models of EF include inhibitory control, working memory, and cognitive flexibility and are responsible for impulse control, updating and manipulating information, and shifting between tasks (Friedman & Miyake, 2017). EFs exist on a continuum and differ between individuals. Having low levels of executive functioning, such that an individual's day-to-day life is impaired, is referred to as executive dysfunction (Rabinovici et al., 2015). Executive dysfunction can result in an individual struggling with planning and organizing tasks, regulating emotions and behavior, or maintaining attention and focus. Executive dysfunction is a common symptom and byproduct of numerous disorders and disabilities (Diamond, 2013a). For example, Individuals with neurodevelopmental disabilities such as autism

spectrum disorder (ASD) or attention deficit hyperactivity disorder (ADHD) commonly encounter challenges because of impaired executive functions (Alderson et al., 2013). Additionally, mental health disorders, such as major depressive disorder (MDD) or obsessive-compulsive disorder (OCD), can impair one's executive functions (Snyder et al., 2015).

When an individual suffers impaired or disabled executive functions, their ability to accomplish work (Barkley & Fischer, 2011; Best et al., 2009; Miller et al., 2012b) or non-work tasks (Davies et al., 2024; Gioia et al., 2001; Grahek et al., 2019) in a timely and efficient manner is compromised, thus creating the potential for negative spillover to occur while simultaneously impeding positive spillover between domains. Individuals with executive dysfunction may struggle with planning, time management, and being distracted, making it difficult for them to disconnect from or engage in work or family responsibilities at appropriate times. For example, an individual with executive dysfunction may continue to answer work emails or ruminate about work tasks during family dinners or events, diminishing their presence and participation in family activities (Barkley et al., 2008). Conversely, this same individual may struggle to focus on work responsibilities due to preoccupation with family concerns, such as planning a family member's birthday party or worrying about their child's academic performance, leading to reduced productivity and potential conflicts with colleagues or supervisors. Additionally, their executive dysfunction may inhibit positive spillover, preventing them from applying strategies learned in a professional context to manage their household more effectively. Transferring resources across role boundaries requires cognitive flexibility to recognize that skills or affect from one domain are applicable in another, and working memory to hold and deploy those resources across contexts. For instance, confidence gained from leading a work

project may not translate into more effective parenting if one lacks the set-shifting capacity to generalize that resource to a different domain.

Cognitive disabilities that can negatively affect executive functioning are *the most common* type of disability among working adults, affecting a significant portion of the U.S. workforce. Indeed, the Centers for Disease Control and Prevention (CDC) estimates that 7% of *all* working adults in the United States between 18 and 65 years old have some form of cognitive impairment that includes executive dysfunction (Shockey et al., 2023)[1]. Although effective boundary management between work and family domains requires substantial executive functioning capabilities, there remains a disconnect between work-family and executive function literatures, with minimal integration of these research streams. Despite the increased call for more research on neurodiverse populations within the workforce (LeFevre -Levy et al., 2023), the cognitive load required to fulfill one's personal and professional duties (Wayne et al., 2023), and the prevalence of cognitive impairments that interfere with executive functions, empirical examinations of how executive functioning relates to the joint maintenance of work and family responsibilities remain scarce. This gap provides little guidance or best practices for workers, researchers, practitioners, and policy makers when designing work environments that minimize the detrimental effects executive dysfunction may have juggling work and non-work responsibilities, both in terms of preventing negative spillover between domains and facilitating positive spillover that could enhance performance and well-being in both spheres. In addition to the practical implications of this research, this area of inquiry will expand our theoretical understanding of the experiences neuroatypical employees face both inside *and* outside of their workplace.

[1]Respondents for this CDC survey were asked "Because of a physical, mental, or emotional condition, do you have serious difficulty concentrating, remembering, or making decisions?"

This study addresses this critical gap by pursuing three key aims. First, I examine how executive functioning influences both negative and positive spillover between work and family domains. While prior research has established various boundary management strategies for balancing work and family responsibilities (Allen et al., 2014; Kossek & Lautsch, 2012), this study investigates how variations in executive functioning shape individuals' capacity to prevent negative spillover and facilitate positive spillover. This is important because executive dysfunction affects 7% of working adults (Shockey et al., 2023), yet we lack understanding of how these cognitive differences impact their ability to successfully manage work-family boundaries. Without this knowledge, organizations cannot effectively support a significant portion of their workforce who may struggle with boundary management due to cognitive challenges rather than motivational or situational factors. For example, organizations could encourage practices such as designating end-of-day periods for lower-demand administrative tasks, establishing norms against assigning new work near shift transitions, or providing greater scheduling predictability, each of which reduces the cognitive load required to manage work-family boundaries rather than assuming employees simply need more motivation or flexibility. Second, I explore the contextual factors, specifically gender and various forms of social support, that moderate the relationship between executive functioning and work-family spillover. By examining these boundary conditions, I provide a more nuanced understanding of when and for whom executive functioning most strongly influences work-family spillover outcomes. Third, I broaden the theoretical scope of work-family research by adding perspectives from cognitive psychology and sociology to the traditionally organizational psychology-dominated field. This interdisciplinary approach illuminates the experiences of neurodiverse employees who have historically been underrepresented in organizational research, while also incorporating

sociological insights on how gender roles and expectations shape work-family experiences differently for men and women (Daminger, 2019; Hochschild & Machung, 2012). By examining cognitive differences alongside gendered social dynamics that affect a significant portion of the workforce, this study addresses important gaps in our understanding of workplace inclusion and accommodation.

These aims collectively contribute to both theory and practice. Theoretically, this work expands boundary theory by incorporating executive functioning as a critical individual difference variable, offering a more complete framework for understanding work-family dynamics. Practically, the findings will provide organizations and policymakers with evidence-based guidance for supporting employees with executive dysfunction, potentially improving both employee well-being and organizational outcomes. In the sections that follow, I propose an empirical examination of how executive functioning influences work-family spillover using data from the Midlife in the United States (MIDUS) study. This research will integrate cognitive functioning and work-family literatures, testing hypotheses across two nationally representative samples to understand how executive functioning capabilities shape spillover experiences in the context of gender and social support.

CHAPTER 2

THEORETICAL BACKGROUND

Executive Functioning

Executive functions (EF) refer to a set of interrelated, yet distinct, higher-order neurocognitive processes that are vital for consciously regulating thoughts, emotions, and goal-directed behavior (Diamond, 2013a; Miyake & Friedman, 2012; Snyder et al., 2015). The conceptualization and operationalization of executive functions have been subjects of ongoing debate and research in clinical psychology, cognitive psychology, and neuroscience. Early models of EF posited a single "central executive" responsible for coordinating and delegating various cognitive tasks (Baddeley, 1996). However, more complex models of EF have emerged in recent years. One widely accepted and empirically supported framework is the unity/diversity model proposed by Miyake and Friedman (2012, 2017). This model posits three core executive functions: working memory, cognitive flexibility, and inhibitory control (Diamond, 2013a; Miyake et al., 2000). These functions display "unity" in that they are highly correlated with each other, but "diversity" in that they also show distinct patterns of association with other outcomes and behaviors. Current approaches to modeling EF frequently leverage a bi-factor approach (e.g., Karr et al., 2018), such that an individual's score on an EF task is conceptualized as being jointly caused by a "General EF" dimension, "specific EF" dimensions, non-EF processes, and measurement error (referred to as the “task impurity problem”, see Snyder et al., 2015).

Despite the proliferation of EF models, working memory, cognitive flexibility, and inhibitory control are three specific EFs present in most frameworks. Working memory involves

temporarily holding and manipulating information in an accessible state (Baddeley, 1992; Unsworth & Engle, 2007), allowing individuals to maintain representations of goals, instructions, and potential consequences over time. This capacity is essential for bridging temporal gaps between perceiving information, planning, and acting (D'Esposito & Postle, 2015; Smith & Jonides, 1999). Cognitive flexibility enables switching between different tasks, rules, or mental perspectives (Diamond, 2013a; Miyake et al., 2000), helping us adjust behavior in response to changing priorities or situational demands (Ionescu, 2012). Inhibitory control allows us to override automatic responses to execute more appropriate behaviors (Diamond, 2013a; Friedman & Miyake, 2004), including resisting distractions and suppressing irrelevant information.

Hofmann et al. (2012) integrated these three components—working memory maintains goals and plans, inhibitory control shields individuals from counterproductive impulses, and cognitive flexibility facilitates adaptive shifting between priorities—into a comprehensive model of self-regulation. Research supports this integration, showing that these three executive functions individually contribute to different aspects of self-regulation. For example, studies have found that working memory capacity predicts one's ability to modify situations to avoid temptation, inhibitory control enhances the ability to direct attention away from distractions, and cognitive flexibility supports adapting strategies when faced with changing circumstances or obstacles (Dajani & Uddin, 2015; Garrison & Schmeichel, 2022; Hendricks & Buchanan, 2016; Hofmann et al., 2008; McRae et al., 2012).

This integrated supervisory system enhances broader capacities for attention, reasoning, decision-making, and problem-solving when pursuing goals. Evidence from multiple research domains demonstrates that executive functioning is associated with enhanced self-regulatory

capabilities across numerous contexts. For instance, developmental studies show that executive functioning skills in childhood predict greater delay of gratification and impulse control in later life (Moffitt et al., 2011; Shoda et al., 1990), while research on emotion regulation links higher executive functioning to more effective management of negative emotional reactions through strategic cognitive reappraisal (Bridgett et al., 2015).

Prior empirical research has demonstrated that executive functioning uniquely relates to self-regulation and goal attainment in different settings over the life course. For example, Eisenberg et al. (2004) find that preschoolers with better executive functioning skills exhibited greater self-regulation and goal-directed behavior when faced with conflicting desires, such as choosing between completing an academic task or engaging in a more enjoyable activity. Further, research on academic achievement in adolescence has consistently demonstrated that executive functions like working memory and cognitive flexibility are strong predictors of performance across content areas, over and above the effects of general intelligence (Brydges et al., 2012; Lawson et al., 2017; Spiegel et al., 2022; St Clair-Thompson & Gathercole, 2006).

In adulthood, higher levels of executive functioning predict successfully accomplishing and managing competing or interfering role demands and goals. For example, Allan et al. (2016) found that higher executive functioning was associated with increased adherence to health behaviors such as regular physical exercise and smoking cessation. Additionally, adults with higher levels of executive functioning are more successful at pursuing multiple goal domains simultaneously and weigh "alternative responses and their temporally proximal and distal outcomes" (Antshel et al., 2013, p. 109) without experiencing excessive goal interference. Given that the cognitive control enabled by one's executive functions is a finite resource with a limited capacity that differs from person to person (Kaplan & Berman, 2010), individuals with lower

levels of executive functioning may lack the cognitive resources to attend to multiple goals simultaneously, leading to unaccomplished goals. As Masicampo and Baumeister (2011) and Marien et al. (2012) both demonstrate, impaired executive functions can generate a negative feedback loop, such that limited executive functions lead to unaccomplished tasks, these unaccomplished tasks continue to unconsciously occupy one's attention in the background, thereby reducing the effort and attention one can give to their current tasks.

The negative outcomes that follow from this failed goal pursuit, among other detrimental outcomes of executive dysfunction, have several implications for people in both work and non-work settings. With respect to workplace and labor market outcomes, Küpper et al. (2012) and Barkley et al. (2010) document how adults with executive dysfunction via attention deficit hyperactivity disorder (ADHD) experience higher rates of job instability, frequent job changes, unemployment, and underemployment compared to their peers without the disorder. Moreover, individuals with executive dysfunction may have difficulty adapting to structured work environments and may experience interpersonal conflicts with colleagues or supervisors due to impulsivity or inattention. These challenges often result in lower income levels and limited career advancement opportunities for those with executive functioning difficulties (Bailey, 2007; Biederman & Faraone, 2006; Fletcher, 2014).

In non-work settings, executive dysfunction can have a significant impact on marriage and family outcomes. Individuals with executive functioning difficulties may struggle with communication, emotional regulation, and maintaining a consistent level of engagement in their relationships (Orlov, 2010). They may experience difficulties in managing household responsibilities, parenting duties, and financial matters, which can lead to increased stress and conflict within the family (Eakin et al., 2004). Murphy and Barkley (1996) show that couples where

one or both partners have ADHD may experience higher rates of marital dissatisfaction, separation, and divorce compared to couples without the disorder. Lastly, individuals with lower levels of executive functioning have partners who report experiencing a lower quality of life (Dawson et al. 2015).

These findings converge on the fact that executive functions underlie the self-regulation and management of competing goals and role responsibilities in both work (Chan et al., 2021) and non-work (Zelazo et al., 2024) settings. Individuals with higher levels of EF have the cognitive capacities to juggle multiple pursuits by maintaining focal priorities, ignoring distractions, adjusting their strategies, and avoiding counterproductive impulses that could disrupt goal attainment (Strobach et al., 2018). Individuals with lower levels of EF may struggle to effectively manage multiple priorities and goals across work and personal life domains and are more likely to experience difficulties with attention regulation, goal management, and impulse control (Adler & Shaw, 2011). Consequently, they may experience greater difficulty in successfully navigating the demands of work and life, becoming more prone to role conflicts, reduced goal attainment, and increased stress levels as they struggle to effectively manage competing responsibilities across work and non-work domains (Orlov, 2010). The inability to manage the responsibilities within each domain may establish conditions for negative spillover to occur from work to family life or vice versa and interfere with positive spillover from taking place. In the next section, I provide an overview of spillover, both positive and negative, highlighting the role executive functioning may play with respect to spillover.

Work Family Spillover

Work-family spillover occurs when experiences, attitudes, emotions, skills, behaviors, or psychological states are transferred from one domain to another in a way that impacts

functioning in the receiving domain (Bhowon, 2013; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000; Hanson et al., 2006). This bi-directional transmission of experiences can take two distinct, yet interrelated, forms: positive spillover that enhances functioning in the receiving domain and negative spillover that impairs functioning in the receiving domain.

Negative Spillover. Negative work-to-family spillover and family-to-work spillover (i.e., "conflict", see Allen et al., 2023 and Grzywacz & Marks, 2000, p. 7) embodies the depleting, interference-based pathway in which strain, stress, and preoccupation generated in one domain impairs one's capacity to fulfill demands in the other domain. For example, the cognitive fatigue and irritability resulting from excessive work hours may spillover to inhibit an employee's patience and engagement with family activities (Rothbard, 2001).

Several theoretical perspectives on spillover have described the decision-making process individuals engage in when maintaining balance and preventing spillover between domains. These perspectives recognize that individuals are not passive recipients of work and family demands, but active agents who make conscious choices about how to allocate their time, energy, and resources across different life roles. One influential framework in this area is the resource-based perspective proposed by Edwards and Rothbard (2000). This approach suggests that individuals have a finite pool of personal resources such as time, energy, and attention that they must distribute between work and family domains. The allocation of these limited resources involves a series of decisions about how much to invest in each domain, based on factors such as role salience, perceived demands, and anticipated outcomes. Edwards and Rothbard argue that individuals engage in a process of resource allocation that aims to maximize positive outcomes and minimize negative consequences across both domains. Building on this resource-based view, other researchers have explored the cognitive processes involved in work-family decision-

making. For example, Greenhaus and Powell (2003) discuss how work-family decision-making and effectively allocating time between domains depends "not only on situational factors (role pressure) but on personal characteristics" (p. 302). Additionally, the boundary management perspective (Ashforth et al., 2000) highlights how individuals make decisions about segmenting or integrating their work and family roles. This approach recognizes that people differ in their preferences for keeping work and family separate or allowing them to blend, and that these preferences inform the strategies they use to manage the boundaries between domains.

Another perspective on decision making and work-family spillover is the selection, optimization, and compensation (SOC) model proposed by Baltes and colleagues (Baltes, 1997; Baltes & Baltes, 1990). The SOC model posits that successful adaptation to changing ecological contexts across the lifespan requires employing strategies of selection (i.e., identifying and prioritizing goals), optimization (i.e., acquiring and refining goal-relevant means), and compensation (i.e., invoking alternative means to maintain functioning in the face of losses). Applied to the work-family interface, the model suggests that individuals must continually select valued goals across both domains, optimize investment of finite personal resources to achieve those aims, and compensate for losses or constraints in one domain by reallocating effort or generating new resources from the other. For instance, an employee might scale back involvement in non-essential work projects to conserve time for family responsibilities (selection), hone time management skills to juggle roles efficiently (optimization) and draw on emotional support from family to replenish resources depleted by workplace demands (compensation). The SOC framework underscores the significant cognitive effort required as individuals engage in the ongoing processes of selecting priorities, optimizing resource allocation, and compensating for constraints across work and family domains.

Building on this perspective, action regulation theory offers another lens through which to understand work-family decision making. While the original theory, developed by Frese and Zapf (1994) and elaborated by Zacher and Frese (2018), explains how individuals generally regulate behavior through cognitive processes like goal development, orientation, planning, monitoring, and feedback processing, Hirschi et al., 2019 developed a distinct model applying these principles specifically to work-family balance. Hirschi et al.'s model conceptualizes balance as the successful joint pursuit of work and family goals through four specific action strategies: allocating resources, changing resources and barriers, sequencing goals, and revising goals. Unlike previous models that focus primarily on the role of demands and resources, Hirschi et al.'s approach emphasizes the individual's agency in shaping their environment and development while uniquely addressing how people manage multiple goals across work and family domains. This model considers how people adaptively use different strategies based on the availability and malleability of resources, the presence of barriers, and the time constraints associated with different goals (Vancouver, Weinhardt, & Schmidt, 2010). This dynamic approach accounts for the complex interplay between work and family domains, acknowledging that strategies may need to be adjusted over time as circumstances change. By focusing on the active pursuit and attainment of work and family goals, this theoretical framework provides insight into how individuals can achieve balance through the flexible use of various goal-oriented strategies. Moreover, it extends the understanding of multiple goal pursuit in the context of work and family roles, addressing a gap in previous research that often focused on competing goals within a single domain (Unsworth et al., 2014).

The decision-making processes these different theories describe demonstrate how cognitively demanding maintaining work and non-work responsibilities can be. For individuals

with impaired executive functioning, the challenges of managing work-family spillover may be particularly pronounced. Deficits in executive functioning can limit the cognitive (e.g., difficulty focusing during work conversations) and emotional (e.g., snapping at family after work, see Holley et al., 2017) resources available to an individual, making it harder to effectively allocate these resources between work and family domains and implement strategies these theories describe. Executive functioning deficits impair the brain's ability to regulate attention and emotions, leading to difficulties managing the mental and emotional demands of balancing work and family roles. This can lead to a range of negative consequences for both the individual, their family, and their workplace, including increased stress, reduced performance in both domains, and diminished overall well-being.

To my knowledge, no studies to date have directly examined the relationship between executive functioning and work-family outcomes, though research on adjacent constructs suggests this is an important area for investigation (e.g., ADHD and labor market outcomes: Fletcher, 2014; Küpper et al., 2012; ADHD and family conflict: Eakin et al., 2004; Johnston & Mash, 2001). Lower levels of executive function (i.e., executive dysfunction) may result in negative work-family outcomes (i.e., negative work-to-family and family-to-work spillover) due to difficulties in managing time effectively within a given domain. Thus, I hypothesize the following:

H1: Executive functioning will be negatively related to negative work-to-family spillover

H2: Executive functioning will be negatively related to negative family-to-work spillover

Positive work-family spillover (i.e., “enhancement”; see Grzywacz & Marks, 2000, p. 7) represents a positive, enhancing pathway whereby involvement in one role provides resources (e.g., skills, perspectives, positive mood, confidence) that improve performance or affective

experiences in the other role (Greenhaus & Powell, 2006; Wayne et al., 2022). Additionally, positive spillover can go from the family domain to the work domain and vice versa (Grzywacz & Carlson, 2007). For example, positive work-to-family spillover may occur when an employee who gains leadership and interpersonal abilities from their workplace responsibilities leverages those competencies to become a more effective parent. Further, positive family-to-work spillover may occur if the time an employee spends with their family recharges and energizes them for the following workday.

Positive Spillover. Higher executive functioning may facilitate positive work-family outcomes (i.e., positive work-to-family and family-to-work spillover) by allowing individuals to extract skills, perspectives, emotions, and other resources from one domain that enhance their functioning in another. For example, the cognitive flexibility inherent in executive functioning could enable an employee to fluidly shift between the analytical mindset required at work and the emotional attentiveness demanded by parenting, allowing skills and positive affect from one role to enrich the other rather than compete with it (Ferguson et al., 2015). Similarly, inhibitory control may help employees set aside work-related preoccupations, freeing cognitive resources to actively engage with and apply professionally developed interpersonal skills in family interactions. Working memory capacity may further support positive spillover by enabling individuals to hold and transfer complex strategies across domains—for example, maintaining awareness of effective collaboration techniques from work and deliberately applying them to family problem-solving. More broadly, the planning and organizational abilities associated with executive functioning may allow individuals to structure their time in ways that create opportunities for enrichment, such as proactively scheduling meaningful family activities that benefit from the energy and confidence generated during a productive workday. Overall, higher

levels of executive functioning have the potential to enhance individuals' capacity to recognize transferable resources across roles and actively deploy them, promoting enriching integration across work and family domains (Lapierre et al., 2018). Thus, I hypothesize the following:

H3: Executive functioning will be positively related to positive work-to-family spillover

H4: Executive functioning will be positively related to positive family-to-work spillover

Moderating Relationships

Gender. Given the different societal expectations men and women face when it comes to dealing with the boundaries between work and non-work, there is reason to believe that gender may moderate the relationship between executive functioning and spillover, primarily through the increased household management demands expected of women. Meta-analytic evidence suggests that there are no gender differences in executive functioning (Grissom & Reyes, 2019) or work-family conflict (Shockley et al., 2017). However, traditional gender roles and societal expectations often place a greater burden on women to manage household and caregiving responsibilities, even when they are employed full-time (Hochschild & Machung, 2012). This unequal distribution of domestic labor can lead to increased strain on women's cognitive resources, making them more vulnerable to the negative effects of executive dysfunction on work-family spillover (Ciciolla & Luthar, 2019).

Women frequently report spending more time on 'invisible labor' (e.g., household managerial tasks and childcare, see Lareau & Weininger, 2008) compared to men, regardless of their employment status (Bianchi et al., 2012; Offer & Schneider, 2011). This 'second shift' of domestic work can be mentally and physically taxing, leaving women with less time and energy to devote to their professional responsibilities. Moreover, women more often take on the cognitive dimension of household labor, which involves the mental effort required to plan,

organize, and manage household tasks (Daminger, 2019; Offer & Schneider, 2011). These disproportionate demands on women's cognitive resources may mean that the relationship between executive functioning and work-family spillover is stronger for women than for men (Eby et al., 2005; Nadkarni & Biswas, 2022). That is, women may need to draw more heavily on cognitive flexibility and inhibitory control to manage frequent role transitions (Allen et al., 2015; Kossek & Lautsch, 2012), making individual differences in executive functioning a more consequential predictor of their spillover outcomes.

Research by Daminger (2019), Dean et al. (2022), and Wayne et al. (2023) demonstrates that women bear a disproportionate share of cognitive labor and mental load in household management and the byproducts of such labor are less tangible than their male partners. Their findings show that women take on more anticipation and monitoring tasks at home, creating an additional cognitive burden beyond physical domestic duties. This disparity may be further reinforced by gender role socialization, as women often internalize expectations to maintain equal engagement across both domains (Glavin et al., 2011; Offer, 2014), compounding the cognitive demands placed on their executive functioning resources. Given that executive functioning is responsible for cognitive control processes like attention, working memory, and task-switching, the increased cognitive demands that women face are likely to tax these functions more heavily. Based on these findings, I propose that the greater cognitive demands women face may amplify the importance of executive functioning in managing work-family boundaries, such that individual differences in executive functioning are a stronger predictor of spillover outcomes for women than for men.

The cognitive demands on women likely magnify the consequences of executive functioning challenges, particularly for negative spillover in both directions. Women with lower

executive functioning may face compounded difficulties when managing the numerous transitions between work and family domains, as they must navigate more complex and frequent role transitions throughout the day. The added cognitive burden women face from household management may deplete the executive resources needed to prevent negative spillover, both from work to family and from family to work. For negative family-to-work spillover, women's greater responsibility for anticipating and addressing family needs may make it particularly difficult to compartmentalize family concerns during work hours when executive functioning is compromised. Similarly, for negative work-to-family spillover, women with lower executive functioning may struggle more than men to disengage from work thoughts and responsibilities during family time, as they must simultaneously manage their greater share of household cognitive labor. These gendered contexts within which executive functioning operates suggest the following hypotheses:

H5: Gender will moderate the relationship between executive functioning and negative family-to-work spillover, such that the negative relationship between executive functioning and negative family-to-work spillover will be stronger (more negative) for women compared to men across all levels of executive functioning.

H6: Gender will moderate the relationship between executive functioning and negative work-to-family spillover, such that the negative relationship between executive functioning and negative work-to-family spillover will be stronger (more negative) for women compared to men across all levels of executive functioning.

The same gendered dynamics that may create additional burdens for women could theoretically affect positive spillover in multiple ways. On the one hand, women's greater involvement in managing both work and family domains could provide more opportunities for

skills, perspectives, and positive experiences to transfer between roles (Offer & Schneider, 2011; Powell & Greenhaus, 2010). Their heightened engagement across domains might allow women with stronger executive functioning to more readily identify and capitalize on instances where resources from one domain could benefit the other. Conversely, the increased cognitive load women face might make it more challenging to recognize and leverage positive spillover opportunities, even with robust executive functioning capabilities. For men, traditional gender roles that compartmentalize work and family responsibilities may limit positive spillover by narrowing the range of cross-domain experiences available for transfer. However, this same compartmentalization could paradoxically enhance positive spillover when it does occur, as clearer psychological boundaries between roles may make it easier to recognize and deliberately apply resources gained in one domain to the other (Rothbard & Edwards, 2003; Swanberg, 2004). The complexity of these potential mechanisms, combined with the lack of clear empirical evidence for gender differences in positive spillover, makes this an important area for exploration. Understanding how gender moderates the relationship between executive functioning and positive spillover could reveal unexplored pathways for promoting beneficial work-family interactions across gender identities. Given these competing theoretical possibilities and the absence of clear directional evidence, I propose the following research questions:

RQ1: Does gender moderate the relationship between executive functioning and positive family-to-work spillover?

RQ2: Does gender moderate the relationship between executive functioning and positive work-to-family spillover?

Social Support. Studies examining the work-family interface have established that access to resources in both work and family domains significantly shapes how individuals

experience work-family conflict (Allen et al., 2000), spillover (Grzywacz & Marks, 2000), and enrichment (Greenhaus & Powell, 2006), ultimately affecting both personal and organizational outcomes. Specifically, the availability of support in either domain plays a critical role in determining how effectively individuals navigate work-family demands. This perspective is grounded in several theories, such as conservation of resources theory (COR; Hobfoll, 1989) which posits that individuals strive to obtain, retain, protect, and foster resources that they value, and stress occurs when there is a threat of resource loss, an actual loss, or a lack of expected gain in resources following resource investment. Additionally, the job demands-resources model (Bakker & Demerouti, 2007) points out that job resources, such as social support, can buffer the impact of job demands on strain, including work-family conflict. Parallel to the work-family literature, the availability of support as a resource has been frequently shown to benefit individuals with cognitive deficits and difficulties with executive functioning (Diamond, 2013b; Sims et al., 2011; Tun et al., 2013). For example, Seeman et al. (2001) find that social support can compensate for executive function impairments in older adults, enabling them to maintain daily functioning that would otherwise be compromised by cognitive deficits. Similarly, supportive environments help children with ADHD better manage behavioral and academic demands despite their executive functioning difficulties (Langberg et al., 2011). In both cases, support does not simply improve cognition in isolation but rather attenuates the negative consequences of executive dysfunction on real-world outcomes—a pattern consistent with a moderation framework in which support weakens the link between cognitive deficits and functional impairment. Taken together, these findings suggest that support may be particularly important for individuals with lower levels of executive functioning in managing spillover

between work and non-work domains, making it crucial to understand how different forms of support manifest across various life contexts.

Within the organizational domain, support can take multiple forms, from formal policies to day-to-day interpersonal interactions. Informal support within organizations primarily comes from supervisors and coworkers, with supervisors often having greater ability to implement policies and provide resources that directly affect an employee's ability to manage work and family demands (Thompson & Prottas, 2006). Empirical evidence from Clark et al. (2017) highlights the importance of a supportive environment in mitigating the negative effects of work and family stressors on work-family outcomes, finding that informal support factors were generally more impactful than formal organizational support factors such as flextime and telecommuting. Drawing from boundary theory (Ashforth et al., 2000), which explains how individuals create, maintain, and cross the psychological boundaries between different life domains such as work and family, a supportive environment can provide individuals with additional resources to manage the demands of work and family roles effectively. These environments may help compensate for the deficits caused by EF limitations (Williams et al., 2009). For example, supportive supervisors and coworkers might provide additional structure and clear deadlines for employees who have difficulty with planning and organization. Similarly, family support systems might include partners who help create and maintain routines, or who assist with breaking down complex household tasks into manageable steps for those who struggle with executive planning. Various forms of informal support have the potential to buffer against the negative effects of EF deficits on work-family spillover, reducing instances of negative spillover such as work-related distractions during family time or family-related stress affecting work performance (Allen et al., 2015; Carlson & Perrewé, 1999; Ferguson et al., 2016).

Supervisor support is defined as the extent to which supervisors 'provide encouragement and support to employees within their work groups' (Griffin et al., 2001, p. 537). It includes emotional support, instrumental support, role modeling, and creative work-family management (Hammer et al., 2009). Supervisor support, particularly family-supportive supervisor behaviors (FSSB), has been consistently linked to reduced work-family conflict and increased work-family enrichment (Kossek et al., 2011). For individuals with lower executive functioning, supervisor support may be especially valuable as a compensatory resource. Supervisors who provide clear expectations, consistent communication, and structured workflows can reduce the cognitive demands of the work role for employees who may struggle with planning and self-regulation (Adamou et al., 2013; Barkley, 2012). Drawing from the job demands-resources model (Bakker & Demerouti, 2007), supervisor support can be conceptualized as a job resource that buffers the impact of executive function deficits on work-family spillover. This support may help mitigate negative work-to-family spillover by reducing work-related strain that would otherwise carry over into the home, and may also attenuate negative family-to-work spillover by providing a more structured and forgiving work environment that accommodates employees whose family demands have depleted their cognitive resources. Thus, I hypothesize the following:

H7a: Supervisor support will moderate the relationship between executive functioning and negative work-to-family spillover, such that the negative relationship between executive functioning and negative work-to-family spillover will be weaker (i.e. less negative) as levels of supervisor support increase.

H7b: Supervisor support will moderate the relationship between executive functioning and negative family-to-work spillover, such that the negative relationship between

executive functioning and negative family-to-work spillover will be weaker (i.e. less negative) as levels of supervisor support increase.

While the buffering effects of supervisor support on negative spillover are well-documented, the role of supervisor support in facilitating positive spillover for individuals with varying levels of executive function is less clear. For positive spillover, supportive supervision may enhance the transfer of positive experiences and resources between domains through multiple mechanisms. For instance, supportive supervision could help individuals with lower EF better recognize and leverage their unique strengths, potentially leading to increased confidence that transfers between domains. Additionally, when supervisors provide structured guidance and positive feedback, this may help employees develop compensatory strategies that could benefit both work and family roles. However, the exact nature of these relationships remains unclear, particularly given the complex interplay between executive function and resource utilization. Therefore, I propose the following research questions regarding supervisor support, executive functioning, and positive spillover:

RQ3: Does supervisor support moderate the relationship between EF and positive family-to-work spillover?

RQ4: Does supervisor support moderate the relationship between EF and positive work-to-family spillover?

Coworker support refers to the assistance, encouragement, and resources provided by peers in the workplace. It encompasses multiple dimensions, including instrumental (e.g., helping with a work task) and affective (e.g., listening to a colleague's concerns) support (Chiaburu & Harrison, 2008). For individuals with executive dysfunction, coworker support can be particularly beneficial in managing workplace challenges. Coworkers can provide

instrumental support by helping to break down complex tasks, offering reminders for deadlines, and assisting with prioritization (Biederman et al., 2006). This type of support can compensate for deficits in working memory and organization skills often associated with executive dysfunction. Thus, I hypothesize the following:

H8a: Coworker support will moderate the relationship between executive functioning and negative work-to-family spillover, such that the negative relationship between executive functioning and negative work-to-family spillover will be weaker (more positive) as levels of coworker support increase.

H8b: Coworker support will moderate the relationship between executive functioning and negative family-to-work spillover, such that the negative relationship between executive functioning and negative family-to-work spillover will be weaker (more positive) as levels of coworker support increase.

For positive spillover, coworker support might facilitate positive spillover through social learning and skill development, as supportive coworkers often model effective strategies for managing work-family demands. For individuals with lower EF, supportive coworkers might help create an environment where experimentation with new organizational or time management strategies feels safe, potentially leading to the development of skills that benefit both domains. Additionally, the emotional support and camaraderie from coworkers might boost self-efficacy and positive affect, resources that could transfer between work and family domains. However, the specific ways these manifest for individuals with different levels of executive function requires further investigation. Therefore, I propose the following research questions regarding supervisor support, executive functioning, and positive spillover:

RQ5: Does coworker support moderate the relationship between EF and positive family-to-work spillover?

RQ6: Does coworker support moderate the relationship between EF and positive work-to-family spillover?

Within the family domain, social support primarily comes from spouses (Michel et al., 2011). Spousal support is defined as the emotional, instrumental, and appraisal assistance provided by one's partner in a marriage or committed relationship (Burleson, 2003). Spousal support plays a crucial role in managing work-family demands (King et al., 1995) and has been identified as critical for marital satisfaction and reducing family-to-work conflict (Michel et al., 2011). For individuals with executive dysfunction, spousal support can be invaluable in managing both work and home life. The challenges associated with executive dysfunction often extend beyond the workplace, affecting home organization, time management, and relationship dynamics (Barkley et al., 2008). A supportive spouse can provide crucial assistance in areas such as household management, financial planning, and schedule coordination, which can be particularly challenging for individuals with executive function deficits (Robin, 2016).

Drawing from the work-home resources model (ten Brummelhuis & Bakker, 2012), spousal support can be conceptualized as a home resource that can buffer the impact of executive function deficits on work-family spillover. For negative spillover, a supportive spouse can help create structure and routines at home, potentially reducing stress and improving overall functioning in both domains (Pera, 2008). Emotional support from a spouse can also help mitigate the frustration and self-doubt often experienced by individuals with executive dysfunction (Ramsay, 2017). This emotional and instrumental support may help compensate for executive function deficits, potentially reducing negative spillover between work and family

domains, particularly for those with lower levels of executive functioning. Thus, I hypothesize the following:

H9a: Spousal support will moderate the relationship between executive functioning and negative work-to-family spillover, such that the negative relationship between executive functioning and negative work-to-family spillover will be weaker (more positive) as levels of spousal support increase.

H9b: Spousal support will moderate the relationship between executive functioning and negative family-to-work spillover, such that the negative relationship between executive functioning and negative family-to-work spillover will be weaker (more positive) as levels of spousal support increase.

There are several potential ways that spousal support could facilitate positive spillover for individuals with varying levels of executive function. Supportive spouses might help individuals with lower EF develop and implement effective strategies for managing daily responsibilities, leading to increased mastery experiences that could benefit both domains. Additionally, the emotional security and confidence fostered by a supportive spouse might enhance an individual's ability to recognize and capitalize on positive experiences across domains. Spouses might also help individuals with lower EF better identify and leverage their strengths, potentially facilitating the transfer of positive experiences and resources between work and family roles. However, the precise nature of these relationships and how they might vary based on executive function levels remains unclear. Therefore, I propose the following research questions:

RQ7: Does spousal support moderate the relationship between EF and positive family-to-work spillover?

RQ8: Does spousal support moderate the relationship between EF and positive work-to-family spillover?

CHAPTER 3

METHODS

Sample and Procedures

This study uses data from the second and third waves of the Midlife in the United States (MIDUS; Ryff et al., 2019) study, collected between 2004-2006 and 2012-2014, respectively. The MIDUS study is a national longitudinal research project focused on understanding factors that influence health and well-being during midlife and beyond. All analyses have been conducted on both samples to ensure the robustness of this study's findings.

The MIDUS study's sampling design employs a stratified, random-digit-dial (RDD) sampling frame to obtain a nationally representative sample of non-institutionalized, English-speaking adults from the 48 contiguous United States. The sampling procedure uses a multistage probability design with stratification by geographic region and metropolitan statistical areas (MSA) to ensure adequate representation across different demographic segments. The original MIDUS study (MIDUS 1) established the baseline cohort, with subsequent waves following up with these participants over time.

The second wave of the MIDUS survey (MIDUS 2) included non-institutionalized adults (n = 4,963) aged 32-84, representing a 75% retention rate from the original sample. MIDUS 2 data collection involved a comprehensive, multimodal assessment protocol that included telephone interviews (approximately 30 minutes) followed by self-administered questionnaires (SAQs) mailed to participants (taking approximately 2 hours to complete). Wave 3 (MIDUS 3)

included non-institutionalized adults (n = 3294) from the Wave 2 sample, representing a 66% retention rate between survey waves.

For the present investigation, final analyses have been performed on a subsample of MIDUS participants who 1) employed at the time of data collection and 2) have complete data on all variables of interest. This selection ensures that respondents have the potential to experience both work and family role demands. All measures described below were assessed for both MIDUS 2 and MIDUS 3.

Measures

Executive Functioning. Executive functioning was assessed using a subset of tests from the Brief Test of Adult Cognition by Telephone (BTACT; Lachman et al., 2014). The BTACT is a comprehensive cognitive battery designed to be administered over the telephone in approximately 20 minutes. The executive functioning factor of the BTACT consists of five tests out of the seven contained in the BTACT (excluding the immediate and delayed word list recall tasks, which measure episodic memory rather than executive functioning):

1. The Backward Digit Span measures working memory by having participants repeat increasingly long strings of digits in reverse order (Wechsler, 1997).
2. Category Fluency measures verbal fluency and executive function by having participants generate as many words as possible from a given category (e.g., animals) in 1 minute (Borkowski et al., 1967; Tombaugh et al., 1999).
3. Number Series measures inductive reasoning by having participants determine the next number in a series based on a pattern (Salthouse & Prill, 1987).

4. The 30-Seconds and Counting Task (30-SACT) measures processing speed by having participants count backwards from 100 as quickly as possible for 30 seconds (Tun & Lachman, 2008).
5. The Stop and Go Switch Task (SGST) measures task-switching ability and reaction time in an executive function task involving switching between rules for verbal responses (Tun & Lachman, 2008).

In the present study, executive functioning was operationalized using a composite score derived from multiple BTACT exercises: the mean of z-scores for Digits Backward, Category Fluency, Number Series, Backward Counting, and the mean of switch and nonswitch trials in the Stop & Go Switch Task. This composite score is computed following the scoring procedure outlined by Tun and Lachman (2012). Both the individual exercise responses as well as the pre-computed composite score are available in the MIDUS database. Thus, the executive functioning composite scores used in this analysis were those calculated by the MIDUS research team following their established protocol rather than computed independently for this study. This approach of using composite scores helps address the concerns regarding the task impurity problem mentioned earlier, as combining multiple measures into latent variables or factor scores has been shown to considerably improve measurement reliability and validity compared to using individual tasks or difference scores alone (Enkavi et al., 2019). The psychometric structure of the BTACT has previously been validated in prior studies (Gurnani et al., 2015; Tun et al., 2006) and, although the MIDUS documentation does not report reliability statistics for the BTACT, Lachman et al. (2014) report alternate-forms reliability coefficients for the executive functioning factor ranging from .80 to .88 and test-retest reliability ranging from .80 to .86 across two studies (see Table 7), indicating strong reliability and temporal stability of the measure.

Spillover. Positive and negative family-to-work and work-to-family spillover were measured on a five-point frequency scale ranging from 1 ("All the time") to 5 ("Never") using the scale developed by Grzywacz and colleagues (Grzywacz, 2000; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000a; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000b; Grzywacz & Marks, 2001) that is included in all panels of the MIDUS study. Sample items for negative work-to-family spillover include: "Stress at work makes you irritable at home" and "Job worries or problems distract you when you are at home". Sample items for negative family-to-work spillover include: "Responsibilities at home reduce the effort you can devote to your job" and "Stress at home makes you irritable at work". Sample items for positive work-to-family spillover include: "The things you do at work help you deal with personal and practical issues at home." and "The skills you use on your job are useful for things you have to do at home.". Sample items for positive family-to-work spillover include: "Providing for what is needed at home makes you work harder at your job." and "Your home life helps you relax and feel ready for the next day's work.". Reliability values for the four scales in the analytic samples ranged from 0.61 to 0.84. This work-family spillover scale has been used extensively in prior empirical work and has been validated against common measures of work-family conflict (e.g., Netemeyer et al., 1996, see Table A1 of Allen et al., 2023 for more information).

Coworker support. Coworker support was measured using items originally developed for the Whitehall Health Survey of British Civil Servants (Marmot et al., 1991), which were later incorporated as a subscale within the larger job characteristics scale within MIDUS. Participants are asked to rate the extent to which they agree with the given statements using five-point frequency scale, ranging from 1 ("All the time") to 5 ("Never"). The items include "How often do you get help and support from your coworkers" and "How often are your coworkers willing to

listen to your work-related problems." Scores were reverse-coded, such that higher scores reflect higher amounts of support. Reliability values for coworker support were 0.68 in the MIDUS 2 analytic sample and 0.70 in the MIDUS 3 analytic sample.

Supervisor support. Supervisor support was measured using items originally developed for the Whitehall Health Survey of British Civil Servants (Marmot et al., 1991), which were later incorporated as a subscale within the larger job characteristics scale in MIDUS. Participants are asked to rate the extent to which they agree with the given statements using five-point frequency scale, ranging from 1 ("All the time") to 5 ("Never"). The items include "How often do you get the information you need from your supervisor or superiors," "How often do you get help and support from your immediate supervisor," and "How often is your immediate supervisor willing to listen to your work-related problems.". Scores were reverse-coded, such that higher scores reflect higher amounts of support. Reliability values for supervisor support were 0.87 in the MIDUS 2 analytic sample and 0.87 in the MIDUS 3 analytic sample.

Spousal Support. Spousal support was measured using the Social Support and Strain Scale, which assesses the perception of caring and understanding an individual receives from their family, friends, and partners (Walen & Lachman, 2000). This measure has been used extensively in prior empirical studies examining spousal support with the MIDUS sample (Donoho et al., 2015; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000, 2001; Jiao & Grzywacz, 2024; Ulichney et al., 2023). Items include: "How much does your spouse or partner really care about you?", "How much does he or she understand the way you feel about things?", "How much does he or she appreciate you?", "How much do you rely on him or her for help if you have a serious problem?", "How much can you open up to him or her if you need to talk about your worries?", and "How much can you relax and be yourself around him or her?" Each item was scored on a 1

("A lot.") to 4 ("Not at all."). Scores were constructed by calculating the mean of the values of the items in each scale. Items were reverse-coded so that high scores reflect higher levels of received spousal support. Reliability values for spousal support were 0.91 in the MIDUS 2 analytic sample and 0.92 in the MIDUS 3 analytic sample.

Control Variables

Job Demands. Job demands were included following the approach used by Allen et al. (2023) who use the job demands subscale from the larger job characteristics scale included in MIDUS. Participants are asked to rate the extent to which they agree with the given statements using five-point frequency scale, ranging from 1 ("All the time") to 5 ("Never"). Job demands items measure the extent to which a participant finds his or her job responsibilities to be demanding. Items include how often: "Do you have to work very intensively – that is, you are very busy trying to get things done?"; "Do different people or groups at work demand things from you that you think are hard to combine?"; "(How often) do you have too many demands made on you."; "(How often) you have enough time to get everything done?"; "(How often) you have a lot of interruption?" The composite score was constructed by calculating the sum of the reverse-coded values of the items in the scale. Reliability values for job demands were 0.75 in the MIDUS 2 analytic sample and 0.78 in the MIDUS 3 analytic sample. Job demands are included as a covariate to account for the well-established direct relationship between demands and spillover outcomes (e.g., Bakker & Demerouti, 2007). However, because job demands could plausibly function as part of the pathway linking executive functioning to spillover, and because some content overlap exists between demand and spillover items, sensitivity analyses examine whether results differ when job demands are excluded from the models (see Multiverse Analysis, Arm A). Additionally, Arm B of the multiverse analysis examines whether job demands

moderate the relationship between executive functioning and spillover, directly testing whether demands play a substantive role in the model beyond serving as a control variable.

Family Demands. Family demands were computed using the strategy by Allen et al., (2023) who combined three items measuring time/stress demands at home: ("You have too many demands made on you.", "You have enough time to get everything done.", "You have a lot of interruptions.") with two items measuring family support ("Not including your spouse or partner, how often do members of your family make too many demands on you?", "How often does your spouse or partner make too many demands on you?"). The three items measuring Time/Stress Demands at Home are based on a five-point scale that ranged from "All the time" (1) to "Never" (5). The two-items measuring family support are based on a four-point scale that ranged from "Often" (1) to "Never" (4). Given the different number of scale points across the items, items were transformed using the percent of maximum possible (POMP) method (Cohen et al., 1999): POMP = 100 × [(Observed score − Minimum possible)/(Maximum possible − Minimum possible)]. Using this method, the minimum and maximum scores across items were equivalent (i.e., 0 and 100, respectively). Additionally, responses were reverse scored when appropriate, such that higher scores indicate greater family demands.

In addition to family and job demands, household-level variables that were controlled for in all analyses include household income and household size. Given the affordances income can have on against executive functioning deficits (Duncan et al., 2017) as well as the increased demands a larger household can place on an individual, controlling for these factors aided in isolating the effect of executive functioning on spillover. Individual-level variables that were controlled for in all analyses include age, gender (coded as Man = 0 and Woman = 1), and

education level (measured on a 12-point scale from "No school/some grade school" to "Ph.D./Professional degree").

Analytic Strategy

All hypotheses were tested using standard multiple linear regression. The originally proposed analytic approach specified generalized estimating equations (GEE) to account for potential non-independence of observations within households. However, upon further review of the MIDUS sampling design, the primary sampling unit is the individual respondent, recruited via random-digit-dial procedures, meaning observations are independent and clustering within households does not need to be modeled. This change was documented in the preregistration amendment prior to analysis. All analyses were conducted separately on MIDUS 2 and MIDUS 3 data to assess cross-wave replicability.

For the main effect hypotheses (H1–H4), four regression models were estimated, one for each spillover outcome:

$$Spillover_i = \beta_0 + \beta_1(EF_i) + \gamma' X_i + \varepsilon_i$$

where $Spillover_i$ is the spillover score for individual *i*, EF is executive functioning, and X is a vector of control variables (age, gender, education, household income, household size, job demands, and family demands).

For the gender moderation hypotheses (H5–H6, RQ1–RQ2), the model included a gender main effect and an EF × Gender interaction term:

$$Spillover_i = \beta_0 + \beta_1(EF_i) + \beta_2(Gender_i) + \beta_3(EF_i \times Gender_i) + \gamma' X_i + \varepsilon_i$$

For the social support moderation hypotheses (H7a–H9b, RQ3–RQ8), separate models were estimated for each support type (supervisor, coworker, and spousal):

$$Spillover_i = \beta_0 + \beta_1(EF_i) + \beta_2(Support_i) + \beta_3(EF_i \times Support_i) + \gamma' X_i + \varepsilon_i$$

Separate models were estimated for each of the four spillover outcomes crossed with each moderator (gender, supervisor support, coworker support, and spousal support), yielding 16 moderation models per wave. Continuous predictors (executive functioning and support variables) were mean-centered prior to computing interaction terms. Statistical significance was evaluated at $\alpha = .05$ (two-tailed). Findings were interpreted with attention to consistency across MIDUS waves, following the replication criteria established by the Open Science Collaboration (2015): (1) statistical significance ($p < .05$) in the same direction across both waves, (2) consistency in the magnitude of the effect size, and (3) overlap between the original and replication confidence intervals.

Supplemental Analyses

Sensitivity power analysis. Because sample size was determined by the existing MIDUS dataset rather than a priori power calculations, a sensitivity power analysis was conducted to determine the minimum detectable effect sizes given the analytic samples (see Appendix).

Multiverse analysis. In addition to the main analyses, a multiverse analysis was conducted to assess how robust the executive functioning–spillover relationship is across various plausible model specifications and research design decisions (Auspurg, 2025; Simonsohn et al., 2020; Steegen et al., 2016) and to guard against the "garden of forking paths" problem, which refers to the inflation of false-positive rates that occurs when researchers make data-contingent analytic decisions among many defensible alternatives without preregistration (Gelman & Loken, 2014). Four arms were examined in the multiverse analysis: (a) alternative covariate specifications, including models with no covariates, demographics only, and education as the sole SES indicator; (b) covariate-as-moderator specifications, testing interactions between each covariate (age, education, income, job demands, and family demands) and executive functioning;

(c) alternative inclusion criteria, restricting the sample to dual-earner couples (i.e., households in which both the respondent and spouse were employed at the time of data collection) and re-running all 20 regression models per wave as a robustness check; and (d) model-set-specific complete-case samples, in which each model set (main effects, gender moderation, supervisor moderation, coworker moderation, and spousal moderation) was estimated on its own complete-case sample rather than a single sample with complete data on every variable used across all model sets. Multiverse results are summarized by reporting the proportion of specifications yielding significant effects, the consistency of sign and magnitude across specifications, and whether substantive conclusions shift as a function of analytic choice. The goal of the multiverse is not to identify a single "true" effect or to require significance across every specification, but to map the boundary conditions of the executive functioning–spillover relationship, characterizing where, and under what analytic choices, effects emerge or attenuate (Simonsohn et al., 2020; Steegen et al., 2016).

Cross-wave replicability. Following the criteria outlined by the Open Science Collaboration (2015), replicability was assessed by examining whether significant effects in MIDUS 2 were replicated in MIDUS 3 based on statistical significance in the same direction, whether the MIDUS 2 effect size fell within the 95% confidence interval of the MIDUS 3 estimate, and whether the combined effect across both waves was statistically significant.

CHAPTER 4

RESULTS

Descriptive statistics and bivariate correlations for all study variables are presented in Tables 1 through 4. In MIDUS 2 (N = 1,289; Table 1), participants reported moderate levels of negative work-to-family spillover (M = 2.60, SD = 0.67) and negative family-to-work spillover (M = 2.08, SD = 0.59), with positive spillover scores somewhat higher for both family-to-work (M = 3.48, SD = 0.65) and work-to-family (M = 2.93, SD = 0.66) directions. The mean BTACT composite score was 0.33 (SD = 0.88). The sample was restricted to respondents who reported being currently employed. Descriptive statistics for MIDUS 3 (N = 729; Table 2) were similar, with slightly lower mean executive functioning (M = 0.18, SD = 0.61), consistent with the longitudinal aging of the MIDUS cohort.

Bivariate correlations (Tables 3 and 4) indicated that executive functioning was weakly correlated with the spillover outcomes. In MIDUS 2, executive functioning was significantly correlated with negative work-to-family spillover (r = .06, p < .05), negative family-to-work spillover (r = .08, p < .01), and positive work-to-family spillover (r = .06, p < .05), though all associations were small in magnitude. In MIDUS 3, the only significant zero-order correlation between executive functioning and a spillover variable was with negative work-to-family spillover (r = .09, p < .05). Across both waves, job demands and family demands showed the strongest associations with spillover, and the three social support variables were intercorrelated and associated with lower negative and higher positive spillover.

A series of multiple linear regression models were estimated to test all hypotheses and research questions. Two waves of the MIDUS study were analyzed separately to assess replicability. All models controlled for job demands, family demands, household income, household size, age, gender (where not serving as a moderator), and education. Both unstandardized (*B*) and standardized (β) coefficients are reported, along with 95% confidence intervals and *p*-values. Significant interactions were probed by computing simple slopes of executive functioning at conditional values of the moderator: the two gender categories for the categorical moderator, and one standard deviation below the mean, the mean, and one standard deviation above the mean for the continuous social support moderators. Results below are organized by outcome and are reported for the MIDUS 2 sample first, then MIDUS 3.

Hypotheses 1–4 predicted that executive functioning would be negatively related to negative spillover (H1: negative work-to-family; H2: negative family-to-work) and positively related to positive spillover (H3: positive work-to-family; H4: positive family-to-work). Results for the main-effect models are presented in Tables 5 through 12, organized by outcome with MIDUS 2 reported first followed by MIDUS 3.

For negative work-to-family spillover, the main-effects model in MIDUS 2 (Table 5) accounted for 32.0% of the variance, but executive functioning was not significantly related to the outcome ($B = -0.003$, $\beta = -.00$, $SE = 0.02$, $p = .870$, 95% CI [−0.04, 0.04]), failing to support H1. In MIDUS 3 (Table 6) the model accounted for 40.7% of the variance, and executive functioning was again not significantly related to the outcome ($B = 0.05$, $\beta = .04$, $SE = 0.04$, $p = .162$, 95% CI [−0.02, 0.12]).

For negative family-to-work spillover, the MIDUS 2 model (Table 7) accounted for 28.3% of the variance. Executive functioning was not significantly related to the outcome (*B* =

0.02, β = .03, *SE* = 0.02, *p* = .350, 95% CI [−0.02, 0.05]), failing to support H2. In MIDUS 3 (Table 8) the model accounted for 34.3% of the variance, and executive functioning was again not significantly related to the outcome (*B* = −0.03, β = −.03, *SE* = 0.03, *p* = .394, 95% CI [−0.09, 0.03]).

For positive work-to-family spillover, the MIDUS 2 model (Table 9) accounted for only 4.0% of the variance. Executive functioning was not significantly related to the outcome (*B* = 0.02, β = .03, *SE* = 0.02, *p* = .383, 95% CI [−0.03, 0.07]), failing to support H3; education was positively associated with the outcome. In MIDUS 3 (Table 10) the model also accounted for 4.0% of the variance, and executive functioning was not significantly related to the outcome (*B* = −0.03, β = −.03, *SE* = 0.04, *p* = .442, 95% CI [−0.12, 0.05]).

For positive family-to-work spillover, the MIDUS 2 model (Table 11) accounted for 5.6% of the variance. Executive functioning was not significantly related to the outcome (*B* = −0.04, β = −.05, *SE* = 0.02, *p* = .077, 95% CI [−0.09, 0.00]), failing to support H4; education was again positively associated with the outcome. In MIDUS 3 (Table 12) the model accounted for 8.5% of the variance, and executive functioning was not significantly related to the outcome (*B* = −0.05, β = −.05, *SE* = 0.04, *p* = .221, 95% CI [−0.13, 0.03]). In summary, H1 through H4 were not supported. Executive functioning did not demonstrate the expected main effects on work–family spillover in either wave.

Hypotheses 5–6 predicted that gender would moderate the relationship between executive functioning and negative spillover, such that the negative association would be stronger for women. Research questions 1 and 2 explored whether gender moderated the relationship between executive functioning and positive spillover. Results are presented in Tables 13 through 20.

For negative work-to-family spillover, the EF × Gender interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 13; $B = 0.07$, $\beta = .06$, $p = .055$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 14; $B = -0.09$, $\beta = -.04$, $p = .218$), failing to support H6 in both waves. For negative family-to-work spillover, the EF × Gender interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 15; $B = 0.02$, $\beta = .02$, $p = .517$) but reached significance in MIDUS 3 (Table 16; $B = -0.14$, $\beta = -.09$, $SE = 0.06$, $p = .019$, 95% CI [−0.26, −0.02]), supporting H5 in that wave. Because gender was coded 0 = male and 1 = female, the interaction was probed by computing the simple slope of executive functioning within each gender group. Among men, the slope was small and nonsignificant (simple slope = 0.02, $SE = 0.04$, $p = .551$, 95% CI [−0.05, 0.10]), whereas among women it was significant and negative (simple slope = −0.12, $SE = 0.05$, $p = .018$, 95% CI [−0.21, −0.02]). Thus, lower executive functioning was associated with higher amounts of negative family-to-work spillover among women but was unrelated to spillover among men (see Figure 1). This pattern is consistent with the direction predicted by H5, in which the negative association is stronger for women.

For positive work-to-family spillover, the EF × Gender interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 17; $B = 0.01$, $\beta = .01$, $p = .731$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 18; $B = 0.11$, $\beta = .06$, $p = .177$), revealing no evidence of gender moderation for RQ1. For positive family-to-work spillover, the EF × Gender interaction was likewise not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 19; $B = -0.03$, $\beta = -.03$, $p = .484$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 20; $B = 0.13$, $\beta = .07$, $p = .105$), revealing no evidence of gender moderation for RQ2.

In summary, H6 was not supported in either wave. H5 received partial support such that a significant EF × Gender interaction emerged in MIDUS 3, and the simple slopes matched the predicted pattern, with a significant negative relationship between executive functioning and negative spillover among women, but not among men. However, the interaction did not replicate

in MIDUS 2, where it was nonsignificant and opposite in sign. RQ1 and RQ2 revealed no evidence of gender moderation of positive spillover in either wave.

H7a and H7b predicted that supervisor support would buffer the negative relationship between executive functioning and negative spillover. Research questions 3 and 4 explored whether supervisor support moderated the relationship between executive functioning and positive spillover. Results are presented in Tables 21 through 28.

For negative work-to-family spillover, the EF × Supervisor Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 21; $B = 0.00$, $\beta = .00$, $p = .891$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 22; $B = 0.01$, $\beta = .01$, $p = .765$), failing to support H7a in either wave.

For negative family-to-work spillover, the EF × Supervisor Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 23; $B = 0.02$, $\beta = .03$, $p = .214$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 24; $B = 0.05$, $\beta = .05$, $p = .135$), failing to support H7b in either wave.

For positive work-to-family spillover, the EF × Supervisor Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 25; $B = -0.03$, $\beta = -.04$, $p = .190$), but was significant in MIDUS 3 (Table 26; $B = 0.12$, $\beta = .10$, $SE = 0.05$, $p = .007$, 95% CI [0.03, 0.21]; RQ4; see Figure 2). A follow-up simple slopes analysis demonstrated that the simple slope of executive functioning was significant and negative at low supervisor support (−1 *SD*: simple slope = −0.15, $SE = 0.06$, $p = .013$, 95% CI [−0.26, −0.03]), nonsignificant at average support (simple slope = −0.04, $SE = 0.04$, $p = .392$, 95% CI [−0.12, 0.05]), and nonsignificant at high support (+1 *SD*: simple slope = 0.07, $SE = 0.06$, $p = .222$, 95% CI [−0.04, 0.19]), such that higher executive functioning was associated with lower positive work-to-family spillover primarily when supervisor support was low.

For positive family-to-work spillover, the EF × Supervisor Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 27; $B = -0.04$, $\beta = -.05$, $p = .084$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 28; $B = 0.01$, $\beta = .01$, $p = .823$), revealing no evidence of supervisor support moderation for RQ3.

In summary, H7a and H7b were not supported in either wave. RQ4 received partial support such that a significant EF × Supervisor Support interaction emerged in MIDUS 3 for positive work-to-family spillover, but did not replicate in MIDUS 2.

H8a and H8b predicted that coworker support would buffer the negative relationship between executive functioning and negative spillover. Research questions 5 and 6 explored whether coworker support moderated the relationship between executive functioning and positive spillover. Results are presented in Tables 29 through 36.

For negative work-to-family spillover, the EF × Coworker Support interaction was significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 29; $B = 0.06$, $\beta = .06$, $SE = 0.03$, $p = .013$, 95% CI [0.01, 0.11]), supporting H8a (see Figure 3). Simple slopes of executive functioning were negative but nonsignificant at low coworker support (−1 *SD*: simple slope = −0.05, $SE = 0.03$, $p = .058$, 95% CI [−0.10, 0.00]), near zero at average support (simple slope = −0.01, $SE = 0.02$, $p = .743$, 95% CI [−0.05, 0.03]), and positive but nonsignificant at high support (+1 *SD*: simple slope = 0.04, $SE = 0.03$, $p = .152$, 95% CI [−0.01, 0.09]); the executive functioning–spillover association became more positive as coworker support increased, although the simple slopes were small and none of the three examined values reached conventional significance. This interaction did not replicate in MIDUS 3 (Table 30; $B = -0.04$, $\beta = -.03$, $p = .387$), where it was nonsignificant and opposite in sign.

For negative family-to-work spillover, the EF × Coworker Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 31; $B = 0.01$, $p = .562$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 32; $B = 0.06$, $p = .080$), failing to support H8b in either wave.

For positive work-to-family spillover, the EF × Coworker Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 33; $B = -0.03$, $p = .381$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 34; $B = 0.08$, $p = .106$), revealing no evidence of coworker support moderation for RQ5. For positive family-to-work spillover, the EF × Coworker Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 35; $B = -0.04$, $p = .215$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 36; $B = 0.04$, $p = .439$), revealing no evidence of coworker support moderation for RQ6.

In summary, H8a received partial support, with a significant EF × Coworker Support interaction in MIDUS 2 for negative work-to-family spillover that did not replicate in MIDUS 3. H8b was not supported in either wave, and RQ5 and RQ6 revealed no significant coworker support moderation of positive spillover in either wave.

H9a and H9b predicted that spousal support would buffer the negative relationship between executive functioning and negative spillover. Research questions 7 and 8 explored whether spousal support moderated the relationship between executive functioning and positive spillover. Results are presented in Tables 37 through 44.

For negative work-to-family spillover, the EF × Spousal Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 37; $B = 0.05$, $\beta = .03$, $p = .161$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 38; $B = -0.04$, $\beta = -.02$, $p = .412$), failing to support H9a in either wave. For negative family-to-work spillover, the EF × Spousal Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 39; $B = 0.00$, $\beta = .00$, $p = .973$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 40; $B = 0.02$, $\beta = .01$, $p = .703$), failing to support H9b in either wave.

For positive work-to-family spillover, the EF × Spousal Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 41; $B = 0.03$, $\beta = .02$, $p = .393$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 42; $B = 0.04$, $\beta = .03$, $p = .464$), revealing no evidence of spousal support moderation for RQ7. For positive family-to-work spillover, the EF × Spousal Support interaction was not significant in MIDUS 2 (Table 43; $B = 0.05$, $\beta = .04$, $p = .146$) or MIDUS 3 (Table 44; $B = -0.02$, $\beta = -.01$, $p = .695$); however, spousal support demonstrated a strong positive main effect on this outcome in both waves, with the MIDUS 2 model accounting for 19.5% of the variance. In summary, H9a and H9b were not supported, and RQ7 and RQ8 revealed no significant spousal support moderation effects in either wave.

To formally assess replicability, the Open Science Collaboration (2015) criteria were applied to evaluate whether effects that reached significance in MIDUS 2 replicated in MIDUS 3 (Table 45). None of the four executive functioning main effects reached significance in MIDUS 2, so the formal replicability rate for the primary main-effect models was undefined (i.e. 0 of 0). The only executive functioning–related term to reach significance in MIDUS 2 was the EF × Coworker Support interaction for negative work-to-family spillover, and the corresponding term did not reach significance in MIDUS 3, so this isolated effect did not replicate. Together with the multiverse analyses, these results indicate that the significant effects observed in the primary models are unlikely to reflect robust, replicable relationships.

Across all models, the most consistent predictors of work–family spillover were job demands (positively related to negative spillover) and family demands (positively related to negative family-to-work spillover and negatively related to positive family-to-work spillover). Social support variables (supervisor, coworker, and spousal) demonstrated significant main effects in expected directions across most models, even though they did not consistently

moderate the executive functioning–spillover relationship. The primary finding is that executive functioning, as measured by the BTACT composite, did not demonstrate robust main or interactive effects on work–family spillover. Of the 12 directional hypotheses, three (H5, H8a, and one component of RQ4) received partial support in the form of significant interactions in a single wave that did not replicate in the other; the remaining hypotheses were not supported. The significant interactions, while individually interpretable, did not replicate across waves, which limits confidence in their robustness.

Table 1

Descriptive Statistics (MIDUS 2)

Variable	*n*	*M*	*SD*	Min	Max	α
Negative Work-to-Family Spillover	1,289	2.60	0.67	1.00	5.00	.80
Negative Family-to-Work Spillover	1,289	2.08	0.59	1.00	5.00	.78
Positive Work-to-Family Spillover	1,289	2.93	0.66	1.00	5.00	.66
Positive Family-to-Work Spillover	1,289	3.48	0.65	1.00	5.00	.62
Executive Functioning	1,289	0.33	0.88	-2.65	3.39	—
Job Demands	1,289	3.02	0.62	1.20	5.00	.75
Family Demands	1,289	43.20	16.16	0.00	100.00	.70
Household Income	1,289	94809.61	58497.45	0.00	300000.00	—
Household Size	1,289	2.06	1.28	0.00	14.00	—
Supervisor Support	1,289	3.61	0.88	1.00	5.00	.87
Coworker Support	1,289	3.66	0.72	1.00	5.00	.68
Spousal Support	1,289	3.61	0.55	1.00	4.00	.91
Age	1,289	50.24	9.11	33.00	81.00	—
Gender	1,289	0.49	0.50	0.00	1.00	—
Education	1,289	7.67	2.44	1.00	12.00	—

Table 2

Descriptive Statistics (MIDUS 3)

Variable	*n*	*M*	*SD*	Min	Max	α
Negative Work-to-Family Spillover	729	2.55	0.72	1.00	5.00	.84
Negative Family-to-Work Spillover	729	2.12	0.57	1.00	4.75	.75
Positive Work-to-Family Spillover	729	2.86	0.67	1.00	5.00	.70
Pos Family-to-Work Spillover	729	3.38	0.66	1.00	5.00	.61
Executive Functioning	729	0.18	0.61	-2.00	2.02	—
Job Demands	729	2.89	0.68	1.00	5.00	.78
Family Demands	729	39.16	15.44	0.00	100.00	.69
Household Income	729	122058.98	72412.04	0.00	300000.00	—
Household Size	729	1.78	1.17	0.00	8.00	—
Supervisor Support	729	3.70	0.89	1.00	5.00	.87
Coworker Support	729	3.61	0.76	1.00	5.00	.70
Spousal Support	729	3.60	0.57	1.00	4.00	.92
Age	729	56.73	7.87	42.00	90.00	—
Gender	729	0.48	0.50	0.00	1.00	—
Education	729	8.06	2.32	2.00	12.00	—

Table 3

Bivariate Correlations (MIDUS 2)

Variable	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15
1. Negative Work-to-Family Spillover	—														
2. Negative Family-to-Work Spillover	.530***	—													
3. Positive Work-to-Family Spillover	-.006	.072*	—												
4. Positive Family-to-Work Spillover	.005	-.065*	.343***	—											
5. Executive Functioning	.055*	.081**	.058*	-.013	—										
6. Job Demands	.525***	.332***	.021	.001	.065*	—									
7. Family Demands	.393***	.486***	.017	-.201***	.009	.400***	—								
8. Household Income	.090**	.073**	.071*	.030	.238***	.120***	.020	—							
9. Household Size	.110***	.224***	-.072**	-.072**	.166***	.093***	.270***	.083**	—						
10. Supervisor Support	-.288***	-.163***	.174***	.092***	-.040	-.310***	-.176***	-.006	-.067*	—					
11. Coworker Support	-.192***	-.171***	.239***	.160***	.000	-.165***	-.164***	.034	-.008	.495***	—				
12. Spousal Support	-.149***	-.247***	.058*	.421***	.022	-.125***	-.378***	.056*	-.088**	.110***	.104***	—			
13. Age	-.190***	-.269***	.034	.006	-.271***	-.224***	-.226***	-.105***	-.418***	.072*	.000	.058*	—		
14. Gender	.010	.083**	.073**	-.031	-.068*	.011	.149***	-.038	-.051	.077**	.058*	-.167***	-.084**	—	
15. Education	.098***	.054	.163***	.064*	.345***	.111***	.040	.328***	.040	-.029	.062*	.017	-.073**	-.011	—

Note. *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 4

Bivariate Correlations (MIDUS 3)

Variable	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15
1. Negative Work-to-Family Spillover	—														
2. Negative Family-to-Work Spillover	.523***	—													
3. Positive Work-to-Family Spillover	.024	.076*	—												
4. Positive Family-to-Work Spillover	.006	-.149***	.374***	—											
5. Executive Functioning	.094*	.025	-.004	-.024	—										
6. Job Demands	.607***	.393***	.112**	.078*	.048	—									
7. Family Demands	.377***	.534***	-.065	-.222***	.030	.390***	—								
8. Household Income	.053	-.014	.073*	.063	.203***	.130***	-.037	—							
9. Household Size	.112**	.193***	-.016	-.044	.133***	.118**	.265***	.108**	—						
10. Supervisor Support	-.300***	-.189***	.135***	.104**	-.008	-.237***	-.165***	-.050	-.026	—					
11. Coworker Support	-.105**	-.093*	.120**	.095*	.009	-.022	-.081*	.035	.037	.466***	—				
12. Spousal Support	-.174***	-.279***	.128***	.471***	-.016	-.090*	-.457***	.097**	-.056	.109**	.083*	—			
13. Age	-.266***	-.266***	.037	-.012	-.237***	-.276***	-.225***	-.129***	-.403***	.118**	.048	.092*	—		
14. Gender	.002	.035	-.001	-.034	-.059	.078*	.130***	-.046	-.023	.025	.031	-.111**	-.141***	—	
15. Education	.055	.013	.101**	.034	.337***	.069	.003	.383***	.092*	-.008	.020	-.020	-.047	-.086*	—

Note. *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 5

Main Effects: Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**0.974*** **	**—**	**0.156**	**6.23**	**< .001**	**[0.668, 1.281]**
Executive Functioning	-0.003	-.004	0.020	-0.16	.870	[-0.042, 0.035]
Job Demands	**0.454*** **	**.422**	**0.028**	**16.34**	**< .001**	**[0.399, 0.508]**
Family Demands	**0.009*** **	**.219**	**0.001**	**8.26**	**< .001**	**[0.007, 0.011]**
Household Income	0.000	.019	0.000	0.78	.435	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.007	-.014	0.014	-0.52	.606	[-0.034, 0.020]
Age	-0.004	-.051	0.002	-1.90	.057	[-0.008, 0.000]
Gender	-0.041	-.031	0.032	-1.31	.190	[-0.103, 0.020]
Education	0.009	.034	0.007	1.33	.184	[-0.004, 0.023]

Note. $R^2 = .320$, Adjusted $R^2 = .316$, $F(8, 1280) = 75.33$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 6

Main Effects: Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.279*** **	**—**	**0.242**	**5.28**	**< .001**	**[0.804, 1.754]**
Executive Functioning	0.052	.044	0.037	1.40	.162	[-0.021, 0.125]
Job Demands	**0.560*** **	**.525**	**0.034**	**16.27**	**< .001**	**[0.492, 0.627]**
Family Demands	**0.008*** **	**.167**	**0.002**	**5.11**	**< .001**	**[0.005, 0.011]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.034	0.000	-1.08	.280	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.026	-.041	0.020	-1.28	.201	[-0.065, 0.014]
Age	**-0.010** **	**-.105**	**0.003**	**-3.10**	**.002**	**[-0.016, -0.004]**
Gender	**-0.108***	**-.075**	**0.043**	**-2.54**	**.011**	**[-0.192, -0.025]**
Education	0.003	.009	0.010	0.27	.788	[-0.017, 0.023]

Note. $R^2 = .407$, Adjusted $R^2 = .401$, $F(8, 720) = 61.86$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 7

Main Effects: Negative Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.368*** **	**—**	**0.141**	**9.70**	**< .001**	**[1.092, 1.645]**
Executive Functioning	0.017	.025	0.018	0.93	.350	[-0.018, 0.051]
Job Demands	**0.134*** **	**.142**	**0.025**	**5.34**	**< .001**	**[0.085, 0.183]**
Family Demands	**0.014*** **	**.385**	**0.001**	**14.14**	**< .001**	**[0.012, 0.016]**
Household Income	0.000	.028	0.000	1.10	.273	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.024	.052	0.012	1.93	.054	[-0.000, 0.048]
Age	**-0.008*** **	**-.118**	**0.002**	**-4.27**	**< .001**	**[-0.011, -0.004]**
Gender	0.023	.019	0.028	0.80	.425	[-0.033, 0.079]
Education	-0.001	-.006	0.006	-0.23	.821	[-0.014, 0.011]

Note. $R^2 = .283$, Adjusted $R^2 = .278$, $F(8, 1280) = 63.12$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 8

Main Effects: Negative Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.596*** **	**—**	**0.202**	**7.91**	**< .001**	**[1.200, 1.991]**
Executive Functioning	-0.026	-.028	0.031	-0.85	.394	[-0.087, 0.034]
Job Demands	**0.167*** **	**.198**	**0.029**	**5.82**	**< .001**	**[0.110, 0.223]**
Family Demands	**0.016*** **	**.432**	**0.001**	**12.59**	**< .001**	**[0.013, 0.018]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.043	0.000	-1.29	.199	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.004	.009	0.017	0.26	.797	[-0.028, 0.037]
Age	**-0.009*** **	**-.130**	**0.003**	**-3.67**	**< .001**	**[-0.014, -0.004]**
Gender	-0.066	-.057	0.036	-1.85	.065	[-0.135, 0.004]
Education	0.003	.012	0.008	0.35	.725	[-0.014, 0.020]

Note. $R^2 = .343$, Adjusted $R^2 = .335$, $F(8, 720) = 46.93$, N = 729. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 9

Main Effects: Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**2.415*** **	**—**	**0.183**	**13.17**	**< .001**	**[2.056, 2.775]**
Executive Functioning	0.020	.027	0.023	0.87	.383	[-0.025, 0.065]
Job Demands	0.004	.003	0.033	0.11	.914	[-0.060, 0.067]
Family Demands	0.001	.026	0.001	0.83	.406	[-0.001, 0.004]
Household Income	0.000	.028	0.000	0.93	.350	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	**-0.037***	**-.073**	**0.016**	**-2.33**	**.020**	**[-0.069, -0.006]**
Age	0.003	.038	0.002	1.18	.238	[-0.002, 0.007]
Gender	**0.096** **	**.073**	**0.037**	**2.60**	**.010**	**[0.024, 0.169]**
Education	**0.041*** **	**.150**	**0.008**	**4.93**	**< .001**	**[0.024, 0.057]**

Note. $R^2 = .040$, Adjusted $R^2 = .034$, $F(8, 1280) = 6.73$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 10

Main Effects: Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**2.011*** **	**—**	**0.287**	**7.02**	**< .001**	**[1.449, 2.572]**
Executive Functioning	-0.034	-.031	0.044	-0.77	.442	[-0.120, 0.053]
Job Demands	**0.164*** **	**.166**	**0.041**	**4.03**	**< .001**	**[0.084, 0.244]**
Family Demands	**-0.005** **	**-.120**	**0.002**	**-2.89**	**.004**	**[-0.009, -0.002]**
Household Income	0.000	.024	0.000	0.60	.545	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.009	.016	0.024	0.38	.707	[-0.037, 0.055]
Age	0.005	.064	0.004	1.50	.134	[-0.002, 0.013]
Gender	0.025	.018	0.050	0.49	.624	[-0.074, 0.124]
Education	**0.027***	**.094**	**0.012**	**2.27**	**.023**	**[0.004, 0.051]**

Note. $R^2 = .040$, Adjusted $R^2 = .029$, $F(8, 720) = 3.74$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 11

Main Effects: Positive Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**3.698*** **	**—**	**0.181**	**20.46**	**< .001**	**[3.344, 4.052]**
Executive Functioning	-0.040	-.054	0.023	-1.77	.077	[-0.085, 0.004]
Job Demands	**0.087** **	**.082**	**0.032**	**2.70**	**.007**	**[0.024, 0.150]**
Family Demands	**-0.010*** **	**-.239**	**0.001**	**-7.65**	**< .001**	**[-0.012, -0.007]**
Household Income	0.000	.010	0.000	0.34	.734	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.016	-.032	0.016	-1.03	.304	[-0.047, 0.015]
Age	-0.004	-.051	0.002	-1.61	.108	[-0.008, 0.001]
Gender	-0.007	-.005	0.037	-0.18	.859	[-0.078, 0.065]
Education	**0.021***	**.077**	**0.008**	**2.56**	**.010**	**[0.005, 0.037]**

Note. $R^2 = .056$, Adjusted $R^2 = .050$, $F(8, 1280) = 9.53$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 12

Main Effects: Positive Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**3.481*** **	**—**	**0.274**	**12.71**	**< .001**	**[2.944, 4.019]**
Executive Functioning	-0.052	-.048	0.042	-1.22	.221	[-0.134, 0.031]
Job Demands	**0.177*** **	**.183**	**0.039**	**4.55**	**< .001**	**[0.101, 0.253]**
Family Demands	**-0.013*** **	**-.297**	**0.002**	**-7.34**	**< .001**	**[-0.016, -0.009]**
Household Income	0.000	.022	0.000	0.55	.583	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.001	-.002	0.023	-0.04	.968	[-0.045, 0.043]
Age	-0.003	-.039	0.003	-0.93	.354	[-0.010, 0.004]
Gender	-0.019	-.014	0.048	-0.40	.692	[-0.114, 0.075]
Education	0.008	.028	0.011	0.68	.496	[-0.015, 0.030]

Note. $R^2 = .085$, Adjusted $R^2 = .075$, $F(8, 720) = 8.33$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 13

Gender × EF: Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**0.984*** **	**—**	**0.156**	**6.31**	**< .001**	**[0.678, 1.289]**
Executive Functioning	-0.033	-.043	0.025	-1.31	.189	[-0.082, 0.016]
Gender	-0.045	-.034	0.032	-1.43	.153	[-0.107, 0.017]
Job Demands	**0.454*** **	**.422**	**0.028**	**16.37**	**< .001**	**[0.400, 0.509]**
Family Demands	**0.009*** **	**.217**	**0.001**	**8.20**	**< .001**	**[0.007, 0.011]**
Household Income	0.000	.019	0.000	0.78	.433	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.007	-.013	0.014	-0.50	.616	[-0.034, 0.020]
Age	-0.004	-.052	0.002	-1.94	.052	[-0.008, 0.000]
Education	0.009	.033	0.007	1.29	.198	[-0.005, 0.023]
EF x Gender	0.068	.059	0.035	1.92	.055	[-0.001, 0.137]

Note. $R^2 = .322$, Adjusted $R^2 = .317$, $F(9, 1279) = 67.51$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 14

Gender × EF: Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.266*** **	**—**	**0.242**	**5.22**	**< .001**	**[0.791, 1.741]**
Executive Functioning	0.083	.070	0.045	1.85	.065	[-0.005, 0.171]
Gender	**-0.101***	**-.070**	**0.043**	**-2.36**	**.019**	**[-0.186, -0.017]**
Job Demands	**0.562*** **	**.527**	**0.034**	**16.32**	**< .001**	**[0.495, 0.630]**
Family Demands	**0.008*** **	**.166**	**0.002**	**5.11**	**< .001**	**[0.005, 0.011]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.034	0.000	-1.07	.284	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.025	-.041	0.020	-1.27	.205	[-0.065, 0.014]
Age	**-0.010** **	**-.104**	**0.003**	**-3.08**	**.002**	**[-0.016, -0.003]**
Education	0.003	.009	0.010	0.29	.772	[-0.017, 0.023]
EF x Gender	-0.088	-.044	0.071	-1.23	.218	[-0.228, 0.052]

Note. $R^2 = .409$, Adjusted $R^2 = .401$, $F(9, 719) = 55.19$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 15

Gender × EF: Negative Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.376*** **	**—**	**0.141**	**9.77**	**< .001**	**[1.100, 1.652]**
Executive Functioning	0.008	.011	0.023	0.33	.738	[-0.037, 0.052]
Gender	0.022	.018	0.029	0.76	.450	[-0.034, 0.078]
Job Demands	**0.134*** **	**.142**	**0.025**	**5.35**	**< .001**	**[0.085, 0.183]**
Family Demands	**0.014*** **	**.385**	**0.001**	**14.11**	**< .001**	**[0.012, 0.016]**
Household Income	0.000	.028	0.000	1.10	.273	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.024	.052	0.012	1.93	.054	[-0.000, 0.048]
Age	**-0.008*** **	**-.118**	**0.002**	**-4.28**	**< .001**	**[-0.011, -0.004]**
Education	-0.002	-.006	0.006	-0.24	.810	[-0.014, 0.011]
EF x Gender	0.021	.020	0.032	0.65	.517	[-0.042, 0.083]

Note. $R^2 = .283$, Adjusted $R^2 = .278$, $F(9, 1279) = 56.13$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 16

Gender × EF: Negative Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.565*** **	**—**	**0.201**	**7.78**	**< .001**	**[1.171, 1.960]**
Executive Functioning	0.022	.024	0.037	0.60	.551	[-0.051, 0.095]
Gender	-0.055	-.048	0.036	-1.54	.123	[-0.125, 0.015]
Job Demands	**0.170*** **	**.202**	**0.029**	**5.96**	**< .001**	**[0.114, 0.226]**
Family Demands	**0.016*** **	**.432**	**0.001**	**12.62**	**< .001**	**[0.013, 0.018]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.042	0.000	-1.28	.203	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.005	.009	0.017	0.28	.782	[-0.028, 0.037]
Age	**-0.009*** **	**-.128**	**0.003**	**-3.62**	**< .001**	**[-0.014, -0.004]**
Education	0.003	.013	0.008	0.39	.694	[-0.013, 0.020]
EF x Gender	**-0.139***	**-.088**	**0.059**	**-2.35**	**.019**	**[-0.255, -0.023]**

Note. $R^2 = .348$, Adjusted $R^2 = .340$, $F(9, 719) = 42.59$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 17

Gender × EF: Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**2.423*** **	**—**	**0.183**	**13.22**	**< .001**	**[2.064, 2.782]**
Executive Functioning	0.014	.018	0.029	0.47	.636	[-0.044, 0.071]
Gender	**0.095***	**.072**	**0.037**	**2.57**	**.010**	**[0.023, 0.168]**
Job Demands	0.004	.003	0.033	0.11	.911	[-0.060, 0.068]
Family Demands	0.001	.026	0.001	0.82	.413	[-0.001, 0.004]
Household Income	0.000	.028	0.000	0.93	.350	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	**-0.037***	**-.073**	**0.016**	**-2.32**	**.020**	**[-0.069, -0.006]**
Age	0.003	.037	0.002	1.17	.241	[-0.002, 0.007]
Education	**0.040*** **	**.150**	**0.008**	**4.92**	**< .001**	**[0.024, 0.057]**
EF x Gender	0.014	.013	0.042	0.34	.731	[-0.067, 0.096]

Note. $R^2 = .040$, Adjusted $R^2 = .034$, $F(9, 1279) = 5.99$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 18

Gender × EF: Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**2.031*** **	**—**	**0.287**	**7.09**	**< .001**	**[1.469, 2.592]**
Executive Functioning	-0.074	-.067	0.053	-1.39	.165	[-0.178, 0.030]
Gender	0.016	.012	0.051	0.32	.752	[-0.084, 0.116]
Job Demands	**0.161*** **	**.163**	**0.041**	**3.95**	**< .001**	**[0.081, 0.241]**
Family Demands	**-0.005** **	**-.120**	**0.002**	**-2.89**	**.004**	**[-0.009, -0.002]**
Household Income	0.000	.024	0.000	0.60	.551	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.009	.015	0.024	0.37	.714	[-0.038, 0.055]
Age	0.005	.063	0.004	1.47	.142	[-0.002, 0.013]
Education	**0.027***	**.093**	**0.012**	**2.25**	**.025**	**[0.003, 0.050]**
EF x Gender	0.114	.062	0.084	1.35	.177	[-0.051, 0.279]

Note. $R^2 = .042$, Adjusted $R^2 = .030$, $F(9, 719) = 3.53$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 19

Gender × EF: Positive Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**3.683*** **	**—**	**0.181**	**20.40**	**< .001**	**[3.329, 4.037]**
Executive Functioning	-0.028	-.037	0.029	-0.96	.338	[-0.084, 0.029]
Gender	-0.005	-.004	0.037	-0.13	.893	[-0.077, 0.067]
Job Demands	**0.086****	**.082**	**0.032**	**2.69**	**.007**	**[0.023, 0.149]**
Family Demands	**-0.010*** **	**-.238**	**0.001**	**-7.62**	**< .001**	**[-0.012, -0.007]**
Household Income	0.000	.010	0.000	0.34	.735	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.016	-.032	0.016	-1.03	.301	[-0.047, 0.015]
Age	-0.004	-.050	0.002	-1.59	.111	[-0.008, 0.001]
Education	**0.021***	**.078**	**0.008**	**2.58**	**.010**	**[0.005, 0.037]**
EF x Gender	-0.029	-.025	0.041	-0.70	.484	[-0.109, 0.052]

Note. $R^2 = .057$, Adjusted $R^2 = .050$, $F(9, 1279) = 8.52$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 20

Gender × EF: Positive Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**3.503*** **	**—**	**0.274**	**12.79**	**< .001**	**[2.966, 4.040]**
Executive Functioning	-0.097	-.091	0.051	-1.92	.055	[-0.197, 0.002]
Gender	-0.029	-.022	0.049	-0.60	.550	[-0.124, 0.066]
Job Demands	**0.174*** **	**.179**	**0.039**	**4.46**	**< .001**	**[0.097, 0.250]**
Family Demands	**-0.013*** **	**-.297**	**0.002**	**-7.34**	**< .001**	**[-0.016, -0.009]**
Household Income	0.000	.021	0.000	0.54	.590	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.001	-.002	0.023	-0.05	.958	[-0.045, 0.043]
Age	-0.003	-.040	0.003	-0.97	.334	[-0.010, 0.003]
Education	0.007	.026	0.011	0.65	.513	[-0.015, 0.030]
EF x Gender	0.131	.072	0.081	1.62	.105	[-0.027, 0.289]

Note. $R^2 = .088$, Adjusted $R^2 = .077$, $F(9, 719) = 7.72$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 21

Supervisor Support × EF: Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.101*** **	**—**	**0.157**	**7.03**	**< .001**	**[0.794, 1.408]**
Executive Functioning	-0.006	-.007	0.019	-0.29	.774	[-0.044, 0.033]
Supervisor Support	**-0.096*** **	**-.126**	**0.018**	**-5.22**	**< .001**	**[-0.132, -0.060]**
Gender	-0.026	-.020	0.031	-0.84	.401	[-0.088, 0.035]
Job Demands	**0.415*** **	**.385**	**0.029**	**14.55**	**< .001**	**[0.359, 0.471]**
Family Demands	**0.009*** **	**.210**	**0.001**	**7.97**	**< .001**	**[0.007, 0.011]**
Household Income	0.000	.024	0.000	0.98	.329	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.008	-.016	0.014	-0.62	.536	[-0.035, 0.018]
Age	**-0.004***	**-.053**	**0.002**	**-1.97**	**.049**	**[-0.008, -0.000]**
Education	0.009	.034	0.007	1.36	.175	[-0.004, 0.023]
EF x Supervisor Support	0.003	.003	0.019	0.14	.891	[-0.035, 0.040]

Note. $R^2 = .334$, Adjusted $R^2 = .329$, $F(10, 1278) = 64.17$, $N = 1{,}289$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 22

Supervisor Support × EF: Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.323*** **	**—**	**0.239**	**5.55**	**< .001**	**[0.855, 1.790]**
Executive Functioning	0.055	.047	0.037	1.51	.131	[-0.017, 0.127]
Supervisor Support	**-0.118*** **	**-.146**	**0.024**	**-4.99**	**< .001**	**[-0.165, -0.072]**
Gender	**-0.094***	**-.065**	**0.042**	**-2.24**	**.025**	**[-0.177, -0.012]**
Job Demands	**0.531*** **	**.498**	**0.034**	**15.43**	**< .001**	**[0.463, 0.598]**
Family Demands	**0.007*** **	**.152**	**0.002**	**4.72**	**< .001**	**[0.004, 0.010]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.040	0.000	-1.27	.205	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.020	-.033	0.020	-1.03	.306	[-0.059, 0.018]
Age	**-0.009** **	**-.093**	**0.003**	**-2.79**	**.005**	**[-0.015, -0.003]**
Education	0.003	.011	0.010	0.33	.742	[-0.016, 0.023]
EF x Supervisor Support	0.011	.009	0.038	0.30	.765	[-0.064, 0.087]

Note. $R^2 = .427$, Adjusted $R^2 = .419$, $F(10, 718) = 53.56$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 23

Supervisor Support × EF: Negative Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.405*** **	**—**	**0.143**	**9.86**	**< .001**	**[1.126, 1.685]**
Executive Functioning	0.016	.024	0.018	0.90	.368	[-0.019, 0.051]
Supervisor Support	-0.030	-.046	0.017	-1.82	.069	[-0.063, 0.002]
Gender	0.028	.024	0.029	0.99	.324	[-0.028, 0.084]
Job Demands	**0.122*** **	**.129**	**0.026**	**4.71**	**< .001**	**[0.071, 0.173]**
Family Demands	**0.014*** **	**.382**	**0.001**	**14.00**	**< .001**	**[0.012, 0.016]**
Household Income	0.000	.028	0.000	1.08	.281	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.024	.052	0.012	1.92	.055	[-0.000, 0.048]
Age	**-0.008*** **	**-.117**	**0.002**	**-4.23**	**< .001**	**[-0.011, -0.004]**
Education	-0.001	-.004	0.006	-0.16	.872	[-0.013, 0.011]
EF x Supervisor Support	0.022	.030	0.017	1.24	.214	[-0.013, 0.056]

Note. $R^2 = .286$, Adjusted $R^2 = .280$, $F(10, 1278) = 51.09$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 24

Supervisor Support × EF: Negative Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.599*** **	**—**	**0.201**	**7.95**	**< .001**	**[1.205, 1.993]**
Executive Functioning	-0.026	-.028	0.031	-0.85	.394	[-0.087, 0.034]
Supervisor Support	-0.038	-.060	0.020	-1.92	.056	[-0.077, 0.001]
Gender	-0.061	-.053	0.035	-1.72	.087	[-0.130, 0.009]
Job Demands	**0.157*** **	**.186**	**0.029**	**5.40**	**< .001**	**[0.100, 0.213]**
Family Demands	**0.016*** **	**.426**	**0.001**	**12.40**	**< .001**	**[0.013, 0.018]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.049	0.000	-1.46	.144	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.008	.016	0.017	0.46	.644	[-0.025, 0.040]
Age	**-0.009*** **	**-.122**	**0.003**	**-3.44**	**< .001**	**[-0.014, -0.004]**
Education	0.003	.011	0.008	0.33	.741	[-0.014, 0.019]
EF x Supervisor Support	0.048	.046	0.032	1.50	.135	[-0.015, 0.112]

Note. $R^2 = .348$, Adjusted $R^2 = .339$, $F(10, 718) = 38.34$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 25

Supervisor Support × EF: Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**2.237*** **	**—**	**0.182**	**12.27**	**< .001**	**[1.879, 2.594]**
Executive Functioning	0.024	.031	0.023	1.04	.299	[-0.021, 0.068]
Supervisor Support	**0.145*** **	**.193**	**0.021**	**6.78**	**< .001**	**[0.103, 0.187]**
Gender	**0.073***	**.055**	**0.037**	**1.99**	**.047**	**[0.001, 0.144]**
Job Demands	0.062	.058	0.033	1.86	.063	[-0.003, 0.127]
Family Demands	0.002	.040	0.001	1.30	.194	[-0.001, 0.004]
Household Income	0.000	.023	0.000	0.78	.438	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	**-0.036***	**-.070**	**0.016**	**-2.27**	**.023**	**[-0.067, -0.005]**
Age	0.003	.038	0.002	1.21	.225	[-0.002, 0.007]
Education	**0.040*** **	**.148**	**0.008**	**4.93**	**< .001**	**[0.024, 0.056]**
EF x Supervisor Support	-0.029	-.035	0.022	-1.31	.190	[-0.073, 0.014]

Note. $R^2 = .075$, Adjusted $R^2 = .067$, $F(10, 1278) = 10.31$, $N = 1{,}289$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 26

Supervisor Support × EF: Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.948*** **	**—**	**0.282**	**6.91**	**< .001**	**[1.395, 2.500]**
Executive Functioning	-0.040	-.037	0.043	-0.93	.352	[-0.125, 0.045]
Supervisor Support	**0.120*** **	**.159**	**0.028**	**4.27**	**< .001**	**[0.065, 0.175]**
Gender	0.012	.009	0.050	0.23	.816	[-0.086, 0.109]
Job Demands	**0.192*** **	**.194**	**0.041**	**4.73**	**< .001**	**[0.112, 0.272]**
Family Demands	**-0.005***	**-.105**	**0.002**	**-2.55**	**.011**	**[-0.008, -0.001]**
Household Income	0.000	.021	0.000	0.53	.599	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.009	.015	0.023	0.37	.712	[-0.037, 0.054]
Age	0.005	.059	0.004	1.40	.163	[-0.002, 0.012]
Education	**0.026***	**.088**	**0.012**	**2.16**	**.031**	**[0.002, 0.049]**
EF x Supervisor Support	**0.123** **	**.098**	**0.045**	**2.71**	**.007**	**[0.034, 0.212]**

Note. $R^2 = .073$, Adjusted $R^2 = .060$, $F(10, 718) = 5.66$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 27

Supervisor Support × EF: Positive Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**3.615*** **	**—**	**0.182**	**19.85**	**< .001**	**[3.258, 3.972]**
Executive Functioning	-0.039	-.052	0.023	-1.71	.087	[-0.083, 0.006]
Supervisor Support	**0.065** **	**.088**	**0.021**	**3.05**	**.002**	**[0.023, 0.107]**
Gender	-0.018	-.014	0.037	-0.49	.624	[-0.089, 0.054]
Job Demands	**0.112*** **	**.106**	**0.033**	**3.38**	**< .001**	**[0.047, 0.177]**
Family Demands	**-0.009*** **	**-.232**	**0.001**	**-7.45**	**< .001**	**[-0.012, -0.007]**
Household Income	0.000	.010	0.000	0.34	.734	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.016	-.031	0.016	-1.02	.309	[-0.047, 0.015]
Age	-0.004	-.052	0.002	-1.66	.097	[-0.008, 0.001]
Education	**0.020***	**.075**	**0.008**	**2.48**	**.013**	**[0.004, 0.036]**
EF x Supervisor Support	-0.039	-.047	0.022	-1.73	.084	[-0.082, 0.005]

Note. $R^2 = .065$, Adjusted $R^2 = .058$, $F(10, 1278) = 8.90$, $N = 1{,}289$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 28

Supervisor Support × EF: Positive Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**3.447*** **	**—**	**0.273**	**12.65**	**< .001**	**[2.913, 3.981]**
Executive Functioning	-0.054	-.050	0.042	-1.29	.196	[-0.137, 0.028]
Supervisor Support	**0.082** **	**.112**	**0.027**	**3.04**	**.002**	**[0.029, 0.135]**
Gender	-0.029	-.022	0.048	-0.60	.552	[-0.123, 0.066]
Job Demands	**0.197*** **	**.203**	**0.039**	**5.02**	**< .001**	**[0.120, 0.274]**
Family Demands	**-0.012*** **	**-.286**	**0.002**	**-7.07**	**< .001**	**[-0.016, -0.009]**
Household Income	0.000	.025	0.000	0.62	.533	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.004	-.007	0.023	-0.17	.862	[-0.048, 0.040]
Age	-0.004	-.047	0.003	-1.12	.264	[-0.011, 0.003]
Education	0.007	.026	0.011	0.64	.525	[-0.015, 0.030]
EF x Supervisor Support	0.010	.008	0.044	0.22	.823	[-0.076, 0.096]

Note. $R^2 = .096$, Adjusted $R^2 = .084$, $F(10, 718) = 7.66$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 29

Coworker Support × EF: Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.015*** **	**—**	**0.155**	**6.53**	**< .001**	**[0.710, 1.320]**
Executive Functioning	-0.007	-.010	0.020	-0.38	.706	[-0.046, 0.031]
Coworker Support	**-0.084*** **	**-.091**	**0.022**	**-3.86**	**< .001**	**[-0.126, -0.041]**
Gender	-0.031	-.023	0.031	-0.98	.328	[-0.092, 0.031]
Job Demands	**0.442*** **	**.410**	**0.028**	**15.91**	**< .001**	**[0.387, 0.496]**
Family Demands	**0.009*** **	**.206**	**0.001**	**7.78**	**< .001**	**[0.006, 0.011]**
Household Income	0.000	.015	0.000	0.61	.540	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.006	-.011	0.014	-0.41	.684	[-0.032, 0.021]
Age	**-0.004***	**-.054**	**0.002**	**-2.03**	**.043**	**[-0.008, -0.000]**
Education	0.013	.046	0.007	1.82	.070	[-0.001, 0.026]
EF x Coworker Support	**0.061***	**.057**	**0.025**	**2.47**	**.013**	**[0.013, 0.109]**

Note. $R^2 = .331$, Adjusted $R^2 = .326$, $F(10, 1278) = 63.34$, $N = 1{,}289$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 30

Coworker Support × EF: Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.254*** **	**—**	**0.242**	**5.19**	**< .001**	**[0.780, 1.728]**
Executive Functioning	0.054	.045	0.037	1.44	.150	[-0.019, 0.126]
Coworker Support	**-0.065***	**-.069**	**0.027**	**-2.38**	**.018**	**[-0.119, -0.011]**
Gender	**-0.101***	**-.070**	**0.043**	**-2.38**	**.018**	**[-0.185, -0.018]**
Job Demands	**0.563*** **	**.528**	**0.034**	**16.39**	**< .001**	**[0.496, 0.631]**
Family Demands	**0.007*** **	**.159**	**0.002**	**4.87**	**< .001**	**[0.004, 0.010]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.032	0.000	-1.02	.309	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.022	-.036	0.020	-1.10	.270	[-0.061, 0.017]
Age	**-0.009** **	**-.101**	**0.003**	**-2.99**	**.003**	**[-0.015, -0.003]**
Education	0.003	.009	0.010	0.29	.774	[-0.017, 0.023]
EF x Coworker Support	-0.037	-.025	0.043	-0.87	.387	[-0.122, 0.047]

Note. $R^2 = .413$, Adjusted $R^2 = .405$, $F(10, 718) = 50.51$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 31

Coworker Support × EF: Negative Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.416*** **	**—**	**0.141**	**10.07**	**< .001**	**[1.140, 1.692]**
Executive Functioning	0.014	.021	0.018	0.79	.427	[-0.021, 0.049]
Coworker Support	**-0.073*** **	**-.090**	**0.020**	**-3.72**	**< .001**	**[-0.112, -0.035]**
Gender	0.031	.027	0.028	1.10	.272	[-0.024, 0.087]
Job Demands	**0.123*** **	**.130**	**0.025**	**4.89**	**< .001**	**[0.074, 0.172]**
Family Demands	**0.014*** **	**.372**	**0.001**	**13.62**	**< .001**	**[0.012, 0.015]**
Household Income	0.000	.029	0.000	1.13	.257	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	**0.025***	**.055**	**0.012**	**2.03**	**.042**	**[0.001, 0.049]**
Age	**-0.008*** **	**-.122**	**0.002**	**-4.42**	**< .001**	**[-0.011, -0.004]**
Education	0.001	.003	0.006	0.10	.921	[-0.012, 0.013]
EF x Coworker Support	0.013	.014	0.022	0.58	.562	[-0.031, 0.057]

Note. $R^2 = .291$, Adjusted $R^2 = .285$, $F(10, 1278) = 52.42$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 32

Coworker Support × EF: Negative Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.565*** **	**—**	**0.201**	**7.77**	**< .001**	**[1.170, 1.960]**
Executive Functioning	-0.026	-.028	0.031	-0.84	.403	[-0.087, 0.035]
Coworker Support	-0.038	-.051	0.023	-1.68	.094	[-0.083, 0.007]
Gender	-0.064	-.056	0.035	-1.80	.071	[-0.134, 0.006]
Job Demands	**0.164*** **	**.195**	**0.029**	**5.73**	**< .001**	**[0.108, 0.220]**
Family Demands	**0.016*** **	**.428**	**0.001**	**12.46**	**< .001**	**[0.013, 0.018]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.042	0.000	-1.26	.209	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.007	.015	0.017	0.44	.663	[-0.025, 0.040]
Age	**-0.009*** **	**-.122**	**0.003**	**-3.42**	**< .001**	**[-0.014, -0.004]**
Education	0.003	.012	0.008	0.34	.737	[-0.014, 0.019]
EF x Coworker Support	0.063	.053	0.036	1.75	.080	[-0.008, 0.134]

Note. $R^2 = .348$, Adjusted $R^2 = .338$, $F(10, 718) = 38.25$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 33

Coworker Support × EF: Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**2.287*** **	**—**	**0.178**	**12.82**	**< .001**	**[1.938, 2.637]**
Executive Functioning	0.027	.037	0.022	1.22	.221	[-0.017, 0.071]
Coworker Support	**0.221*** **	**.242**	**0.025**	**8.84**	**< .001**	**[0.172, 0.269]**
Gender	0.071	.054	0.036	1.96	.050	[-0.000, 0.141]
Job Demands	0.037	.035	0.032	1.15	.250	[-0.026, 0.099]
Family Demands	**0.002***	**.061**	**0.001**	**1.98**	**.048**	**[0.000, 0.005]**
Household Income	0.000	.023	0.000	0.80	.423	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	**-0.041** **	**-.080**	**0.016**	**-2.63**	**.009**	**[-0.072, -0.010]**
Age	0.003	.048	0.002	1.54	.123	[-0.001, 0.008]
Education	**0.035*** **	**.128**	**0.008**	**4.32**	**< .001**	**[0.019, 0.050]**
EF x Coworker Support	-0.025	-.024	0.028	-0.88	.381	[-0.080, 0.031]

Note. $R^2 = .096$, Adjusted $R^2 = .089$, $F(10, 1278) = 13.65$, $N = 1{,}289$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 34

Coworker Support × EF: Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**2.046*** **	**—**	**0.285**	**7.18**	**< .001**	**[1.487, 2.604]**
Executive Functioning	-0.036	-.033	0.044	-0.82	.413	[-0.122, 0.050]
Coworker Support	**0.091** **	**.103**	**0.032**	**2.80**	**.005**	**[0.027, 0.154]**
Gender	0.014	.011	0.050	0.28	.778	[-0.084, 0.113]
Job Demands	**0.158*** **	**.159**	**0.041**	**3.89**	**< .001**	**[0.078, 0.237]**
Family Demands	**-0.005** **	**-.108**	**0.002**	**-2.61**	**.009**	**[-0.008, -0.001]**
Household Income	0.000	.021	0.000	0.53	.597	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.004	.008	0.024	0.19	.851	[-0.042, 0.051]
Age	0.005	.060	0.004	1.41	.158	[-0.002, 0.012]
Education	**0.027***	**.093**	**0.012**	**2.26**	**.024**	**[0.004, 0.050]**
EF x Coworker Support	0.082	.059	0.051	1.62	.106	[-0.017, 0.182]

Note. $R^2 = .055$, Adjusted $R^2 = .042$, $F(10, 718) = 4.19$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 35

Coworker Support × EF: Positive Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**3.617*** **	**—**	**0.179**	**20.15**	**< .001**	**[3.265, 3.969]**
Executive Functioning	-0.036	-.048	0.023	-1.58	.115	[-0.080, 0.009]
Coworker Support	**0.123*** **	**.136**	**0.025**	**4.90**	**< .001**	**[0.074, 0.172]**
Gender	-0.021	-.016	0.036	-0.58	.561	[-0.092, 0.050]
Job Demands	**0.105** **	**.099**	**0.032**	**3.27**	**.001**	**[0.042, 0.168]**
Family Demands	**-0.009*** **	**-.220**	**0.001**	**-7.03**	**< .001**	**[-0.011, -0.006]**
Household Income	0.000	.010	0.000	0.34	.734	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.018	-.036	0.016	-1.17	.241	[-0.049, 0.012]
Age	-0.003	-.046	0.002	-1.45	.147	[-0.008, 0.001]
Education	**0.017***	**.063**	**0.008**	**2.11**	**.035**	**[0.001, 0.033]**
EF x Coworker Support	-0.035	-.034	0.028	-1.24	.215	[-0.091, 0.020]

Note. $R^2 = .075$, Adjusted $R^2 = .068$, $F(10, 1278) = 10.36$, $N = 1{,}289$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 36

Coworker Support × EF: Positive Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**3.506*** **	**—**	**0.274**	**12.81**	**< .001**	**[2.970, 4.043]**
Executive Functioning	-0.053	-.049	0.042	-1.26	.208	[-0.135, 0.029]
Coworker Support	**0.065***	**.075**	**0.031**	**2.08**	**.038**	**[0.004, 0.126]**
Gender	-0.026	-.020	0.048	-0.54	.590	[-0.120, 0.068]
Job Demands	**0.174*** **	**.179**	**0.039**	**4.46**	**< .001**	**[0.097, 0.250]**
Family Demands	**-0.012*** **	**-.289**	**0.002**	**-7.13**	**< .001**	**[-0.016, -0.009]**
Household Income	0.000	.019	0.000	0.49	.622	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.004	-.008	0.023	-0.19	.849	[-0.049, 0.040]
Age	-0.004	-.043	0.004	-1.02	.308	[-0.010, 0.003]
Education	0.008	.027	0.011	0.67	.505	[-0.015, 0.030]
EF x Coworker Support	0.038	.028	0.049	0.77	.439	[-0.058, 0.134]

Note. $R^2 = .091$, Adjusted $R^2 = .079$, $F(10, 718) = 7.23$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 37

Spousal Support × EF: Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**0.985*** **	**—**	**0.157**	**6.27**	**< .001**	**[0.677, 1.293]**
Executive Functioning	-0.003	-.004	0.020	-0.16	.872	[-0.042, 0.035]
Spousal Support	-0.025	-.020	0.030	-0.81	.417	[-0.084, 0.035]
Gender	-0.044	-.033	0.032	-1.40	.163	[-0.107, 0.018]
Job Demands	**0.453*** **	**.421**	**0.028**	**16.29**	**< .001**	**[0.398, 0.507]**
Family Demands	**0.009*** **	**.212**	**0.001**	**7.54**	**< .001**	**[0.006, 0.011]**
Household Income	0.000	.019	0.000	0.77	.439	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.006	-.012	0.014	-0.46	.645	[-0.033, 0.021]
Age	-0.004	-.050	0.002	-1.85	.065	[-0.007, 0.000]
Education	0.009	.033	0.007	1.28	.200	[-0.005, 0.023]
EF x Spousal Support	0.046	.033	0.033	1.40	.161	[-0.018, 0.111]

Note. $R^2 = .322$, Adjusted $R^2 = .316$, $F(10, 1278) = 60.57$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 38

Spousal Support × EF: Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.297*** **	**—**	**0.242**	**5.35**	**< .001**	**[0.822, 1.772]**
Executive Functioning	0.049	.042	0.037	1.32	.188	[-0.024, 0.122]
Spousal Support	-0.076	-.060	0.042	-1.83	.068	[-0.157, 0.005]
Gender	**-0.110***	**-.076**	**0.043**	**-2.58**	**.010**	**[-0.194, -0.027]**
Job Demands	**0.569*** **	**.534**	**0.035**	**16.41**	**< .001**	**[0.501, 0.637]**
Family Demands	**0.006*** **	**.135**	**0.002**	**3.70**	**< .001**	**[0.003, 0.010]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.029	0.000	-0.90	.366	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.022	-.036	0.020	-1.10	.270	[-0.061, 0.017]
Age	**-0.009** **	**-.102**	**0.003**	**-3.02**	**.003**	**[-0.015, -0.003]**
Education	0.001	.004	0.010	0.14	.892	[-0.019, 0.021]
EF x Spousal Support	-0.041	-.024	0.051	-0.82	.412	[-0.141, 0.058]

Note. $R^2 = .411$, Adjusted $R^2 = .403$, $F(10, 718) = 50.06$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 39

Spousal Support × EF: Negative Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.428*** **	**—**	**0.141**	**10.10**	**< .001**	**[1.151, 1.705]**
Executive Functioning	0.016	.024	0.018	0.92	.360	[-0.018, 0.051]
Spousal Support	**-0.089****	**-.084**	**0.027**	**-3.25**	**.001**	**[-0.142, -0.035]**
Gender	0.012	.010	0.029	0.40	.686	[-0.044, 0.068]
Job Demands	**0.135*** **	**.142**	**0.025**	**5.39**	**< .001**	**[0.086, 0.184]**
Family Demands	**0.013*** **	**.354**	**0.001**	**12.30**	**< .001**	**[0.011, 0.015]**
Household Income	0.000	.032	0.000	1.27	.203	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.023	.051	0.012	1.89	.059	[-0.001, 0.047]
Age	**-0.008*** **	**-.121**	**0.002**	**-4.38**	**< .001**	**[-0.011, -0.004]**
Education	-0.001	-.005	0.006	-0.18	.853	[-0.014, 0.011]
EF x Spousal Support	-0.001	-.001	0.030	-0.03	.973	[-0.059, 0.057]

Note. $R^2 = .289$, Adjusted $R^2 = .283$, $F(10, 1278) = 51.90$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 40

Spousal Support × EF: Negative Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.618*** **	**—**	**0.202**	**8.02**	**< .001**	**[1.223, 2.013]**
Executive Functioning	-0.026	-.028	0.031	-0.83	.407	[-0.087, 0.035]
Spousal Support	**-0.071***	**-.071**	**0.035**	**-2.06**	**.040**	**[-0.139, -0.003]**
Gender	**-0.070***	**-.062**	**0.036**	**-1.98**	**.048**	**[-0.140, -0.001]**
Job Demands	**0.172*** **	**.204**	**0.029**	**5.95**	**< .001**	**[0.115, 0.228]**
Family Demands	**0.015*** **	**.397**	**0.001**	**10.36**	**< .001**	**[0.012, 0.017]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.037	0.000	-1.11	.269	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.007	.014	0.017	0.40	.689	[-0.026, 0.039]
Age	**-0.009*** **	**-.127**	**0.003**	**-3.60**	**< .001**	**[-0.014, -0.004]**
Education	0.002	.008	0.008	0.22	.825	[-0.015, 0.018]
EF x Spousal Support	0.016	.012	0.042	0.38	.703	[-0.066, 0.098]

Note. $R^2 = .347$, Adjusted $R^2 = .338$, $F(10, 718) = 38.10$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 41

Spousal Support × EF: Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**2.358*** **	**—**	**0.184**	**12.82**	**< .001**	**[1.998, 2.719]**
Executive Functioning	0.021	.028	0.023	0.90	.369	[-0.024, 0.066]
Spousal Support	**0.096** **	**.081**	**0.035**	**2.72**	**.007**	**[0.027, 0.166]**
Gender	**0.108** **	**.082**	**0.037**	**2.91**	**.004**	**[0.035, 0.181]**
Job Demands	0.002	.002	0.033	0.05	.960	[-0.062, 0.065]
Family Demands	0.002	.057	0.001	1.71	.088	[-0.000, 0.005]
Household Income	0.000	.022	0.000	0.76	.448	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	**-0.036***	**-.070**	**0.016**	**-2.26**	**.024**	**[-0.068, -0.005]**
Age	0.003	.042	0.002	1.31	.189	[-0.001, 0.008]
Education	**0.040*** **	**.148**	**0.008**	**4.87**	**< .001**	**[0.024, 0.056]**
EF x Spousal Support	0.033	.023	0.039	0.85	.393	[-0.043, 0.109]

Note. $R^2 = .046$, Adjusted $R^2 = .039$, $F(10, 1278) = 6.21$, $N = 1{,}289$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 42

Spousal Support × EF: Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**1.979*** **	**—**	**0.286**	**6.92**	**< .001**	**[1.419, 2.540]**
Executive Functioning	-0.031	-.028	0.044	-0.69	.489	[-0.117, 0.056]
Spousal Support	**0.127** **	**.108**	**0.049**	**2.59**	**.010**	**[0.031, 0.223]**
Gender	0.030	.022	0.050	0.59	.558	[-0.069, 0.128]
Job Demands	**0.150*** **	**.152**	**0.041**	**3.67**	**< .001**	**[0.070, 0.230]**
Family Demands	-0.003	-.064	0.002	-1.39	.164	[-0.007, 0.001]
Household Income	0.000	.015	0.000	0.36	.715	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	0.004	.006	0.024	0.15	.881	[-0.043, 0.050]
Age	0.005	.059	0.004	1.39	.164	[-0.002, 0.012]
Education	**0.029***	**.102**	**0.012**	**2.46**	**.014**	**[0.006, 0.053]**
EF x Spousal Support	0.044	.027	0.060	0.73	.464	[-0.073, 0.161]

Note. $R^2 = .050$, Adjusted $R^2 = .037$, $F(10, 718) = 3.77$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 43

Spousal Support × EF: Positive Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**3.387*** **	**—**	**0.168**	**20.17**	**< .001**	**[3.057, 3.716]**
Executive Functioning	-0.038	-.051	0.021	-1.81	.071	[-0.079, 0.003]
Spousal Support	**0.480*** **	**.406**	**0.032**	**14.83**	**< .001**	**[0.417, 0.544]**
Gender	0.054	.041	0.034	1.59	.113	[-0.013, 0.120]
Job Demands	**0.080** **	**.076**	**0.030**	**2.71**	**.007**	**[0.022, 0.139]**
Family Demands	**-0.004** **	**-.087**	**0.001**	**-2.84**	**.005**	**[-0.006, -0.001]**
Household Income	-0.000	-.013	0.000	-0.48	.632	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.013	-.025	0.015	-0.87	.386	[-0.041, 0.016]
Age	-0.003	-.035	0.002	-1.19	.234	[-0.007, 0.002]
Education	**0.019***	**.071**	**0.007**	**2.53**	**.011**	**[0.004, 0.034]**
EF x Spousal Support	0.051	.037	0.035	1.45	.146	[-0.018, 0.121]

Note. $R^2 = .195$, Adjusted $R^2 = .189$, $F(10, 1278) = 30.99$, N = 1,289. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 44

Spousal Support × EF: Positive Family-to-Work Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Predictor	*B*	β	*SE*	*t*	*p*	95% CI
Intercept	**3.314*** **	**—**	**0.249**	**13.28**	**< .001**	**[2.825, 3.803]**
Executive Functioning	-0.050	-.047	0.038	-1.31	.192	[-0.126, 0.025]
Spousal Support	**0.529*** **	**.458**	**0.043**	**12.35**	**< .001**	**[0.445, 0.612]**
Gender	0.011	.008	0.044	0.25	.800	[-0.075, 0.097]
Job Demands	**0.132*** **	**.136**	**0.036**	**3.70**	**< .001**	**[0.062, 0.202]**
Family Demands	-0.003	-.069	0.002	-1.68	.093	[-0.006, 0.000]
Household Income	-0.000	-.018	0.000	-0.49	.625	[-0.000, 0.000]
Household Size	-0.020	-.036	0.021	-0.98	.330	[-0.061, 0.020]
Age	-0.005	-.056	0.003	-1.48	.139	[-0.011, 0.002]
Education	0.016	.058	0.010	1.56	.119	[-0.004, 0.037]
EF x Spousal Support	-0.020	-.013	0.052	-0.39	.695	[-0.122, 0.082]

Note. $R^2 = .245$, Adjusted $R^2 = .235$, $F(10, 718) = 23.32$, $N = 729$. B = unstandardized coefficient; β = standardized coefficient; SE = standard error; 95% CI = 95% confidence interval. Bold rows are significant ($p < .05$). *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

Table 45

Regression Replicability Results Across MIDUS Waves

Model	Outcome	Term	M2 *B* [95% CI]	M3 *B* [95% CI]	Sign	Sig	CI
Main effects	NWF	EF	0.00 [-0.04, 0.04]	0.05 [-0.02, 0.12]	—	—	—
Main effects	NFW	EF	0.02 [-0.02, 0.05]	-0.03 [-0.09, 0.03]	—	—	—
Main effects	PWF	EF	0.02 [-0.03, 0.07]	-0.03 [-0.12, 0.05]	—	—	—
Main effects	PFW	EF	-0.04 [-0.09, 0.00]	-0.05 [-0.13, 0.03]	—	—	—
EF × Gender	NFW	EF	0.01 [-0.04, 0.05]	0.02 [-0.05, 0.10]	—	—	—
EF × Gender	NFW	EF × Gender	0.02 [-0.04, 0.08]	-0.14 [-0.26, -0.02]*	—	—	—
EF × Gender	NWF	EF	-0.03 [-0.08, 0.02]	0.08 [-0.01, 0.17]	—	—	—
EF × Gender	NWF	EF × Gender	0.07 [0.00, 0.14]	-0.09 [-0.23, 0.05]	—	—	—
EF × Gender	PFW	EF	-0.03 [-0.08, 0.03]	-0.10 [-0.20, 0.00]	—	—	—
EF × Gender	PFW	EF × Gender	-0.03 [-0.11, 0.05]	0.13 [-0.03, 0.29]	—	—	—
EF × Gender	PWF	EF	0.01 [-0.04, 0.07]	-0.07 [-0.18, 0.03]	—	—	—
EF × Gender	PWF	EF × Gender	0.01 [-0.07, 0.10]	0.11 [-0.05, 0.28]	—	—	—
EF × Supervisor support	NFW	EF	0.02 [-0.02, 0.05]	-0.03 [-0.09, 0.03]	—	—	—
EF × Supervisor support	NFW	EF × Supervisor Support	0.02 [-0.01, 0.06]	0.05 [-0.01, 0.11]	—	—	—
EF × Supervisor support	NWF	EF	-0.01 [-0.04, 0.03]	0.06 [-0.02, 0.13]	—	—	—
EF × Supervisor support	NWF	EF × Supervisor Support	0.00 [-0.04, 0.04]	0.01 [-0.06, 0.09]	—	—	—
EF × Supervisor support	PWF	EF	0.02 [-0.02, 0.07]	-0.04 [-0.12, 0.04]	—	—	—

Model	Outcome	Term	M2 *B* [95% CI]	M3 *B* [95% CI]	Sign	Sig	CI
EF × Supervisor support	PWF	EF × Supervisor Support	-0.03 [-0.07, 0.01]	0.12 [0.03, 0.21]**	—	—	—
EF × Supervisor support	PFW	EF	-0.04 [-0.08, 0.01]	-0.05 [-0.14, 0.03]	—	—	—
EF × Supervisor support	PFW	EF × Supervisor Support	-0.04 [-0.08, 0.01]	0.01 [-0.08, 0.10]	—	—	—
EF × Coworker support	NFW	EF	0.01 [-0.02, 0.05]	-0.03 [-0.09, 0.04]	—	—	—
EF × Coworker support	NFW	EF × Coworker Support	0.01 [-0.03, 0.06]	0.06 [-0.01, 0.13]	—	—	—
EF × Coworker support	NWF	EF	-0.01 [-0.05, 0.03]	0.05 [-0.02, 0.13]	—	—	—
EF × Coworker support	NWF	EF × Coworker Support	0.06 [0.01, 0.11]*	-0.04 [-0.12, 0.05]	✗	✗	—
EF × Coworker support	PFW	EF	-0.04 [-0.08, 0.01]	-0.05 [-0.14, 0.03]	—	—	—
EF × Coworker support	PFW	EF × Coworker Support	-0.04 [-0.09, 0.02]	0.04 [-0.06, 0.13]	—	—	—
EF × Coworker support	PWF	EF	0.03 [-0.02, 0.07]	-0.04 [-0.12, 0.05]	—	—	—
EF × Coworker support	PWF	EF × Coworker Support	-0.03 [-0.08, 0.03]	0.08 [-0.02, 0.18]	—	—	—
EF × Spousal support	NFW	EF	0.02 [-0.02, 0.05]	-0.03 [-0.09, 0.04]	—	—	—
EF × Spousal support	NFW	EF × Spousal Support	0.00 [-0.06, 0.06]	0.02 [-0.07, 0.10]	—	—	—
EF × Spousal support	NWF	EF	0.00 [-0.04, 0.04]	0.05 [-0.02, 0.12]	—	—	—

Model	Outcome	Term	M2 *B* [95% CI]	M3 *B* [95% CI]	Sign	Sig	CI
EF × Spousal support	NWF	EF × Spousal Support	0.05 [-0.02, 0.11]	-0.04 [-0.14, 0.06]	—	—	—
EF × Spousal support	PFW	EF	-0.04 [-0.08, 0.00]	-0.05 [-0.13, 0.03]	—	—	—
EF × Spousal support	PFW	EF × Spousal Support	0.05 [-0.02, 0.12]	-0.02 [-0.12, 0.08]	—	—	—
EF × Spousal support	PWF	EF	0.02 [-0.02, 0.07]	-0.03 [-0.12, 0.06]	—	—	—
EF × Spousal support	PWF	EF × Spousal Support	0.03 [-0.04, 0.11]	0.04 [-0.07, 0.16]	—	—	—
Total significant effects			*1/36*	*2/36*			
Step 1: Same sign					*0/1 (0.0%)*		
Step 2: Same sign + significant						*0/1 (0.0%)*	
Step 3: Overlapping CIs							*0/0*

Note. NWF = negative work-to-family spillover; NFW = negative family-to-work spillover; PWF = positive work-to-family spillover; PFW = positive family-to-work spillover. EF = executive functioning. M2 = MIDUS 2; M3 = MIDUS 3. Replicability assessed using the Open Science Collaboration (2015) criteria. Step 1: percentage of M2-significant effects with the same sign in M3. Step 2: percentage of M2-significant effects that are also significant and same sign in M3. Step 3: percentage of effects significant in both waves with overlapping 95% CIs. ✓ = criterion met. ✗ = criterion not met. — = not applicable.
*$p < .05$. **$p < .01$. ***$p < .001$.

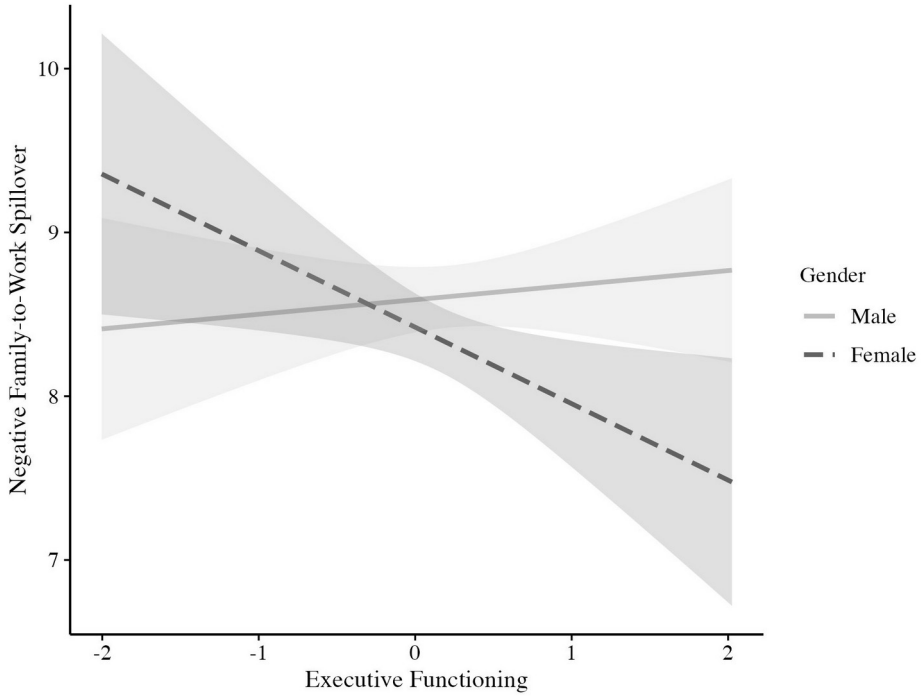


Figure 1

Simple Slopes of Executive Functioning Predicting Negative Family-to-Work Spillover by Gender (MIDUS 3)

Note. Predicted values of negative family-to-work spillover plotted as a function of executive functioning, separately for men (solid line) and women (dashed line), based on the MIDUS 3 gender moderation model (Table 16). The EF × Gender interaction was significant ($B = -0.14$, $\beta = -.09$, $SE = 0.06$, $p = .019$, 95% CI [−0.26, −0.02]). Because gender was coded 0 = male and 1 = female, the simple slope of executive functioning was nonsignificant for men (0.02, $p = .551$) but significant and negative for women (−0.12, $p = .018$); thus lower executive functioning was associated with higher negative family-to-work spillover among women but was unrelated to spillover among men. Executive functioning is shown in standardized units.

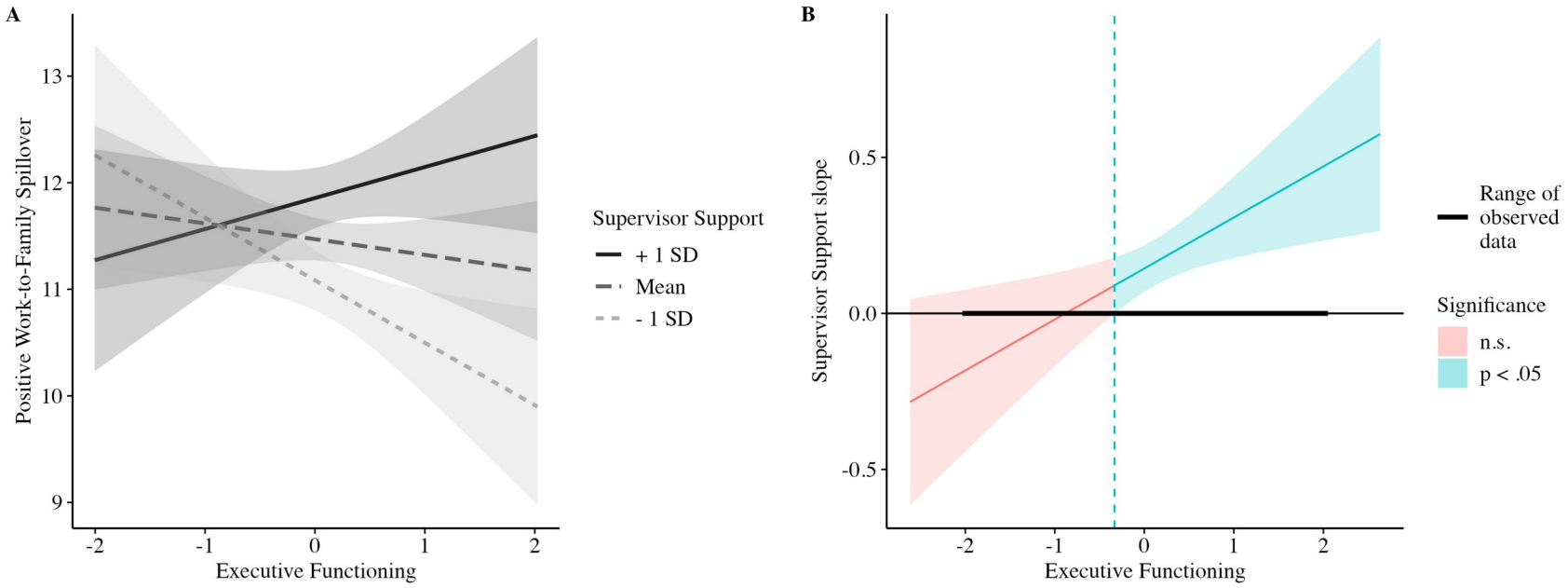


Figure 2

Interaction of Executive Functioning and Supervisor Support Predicting Positive Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 3)

Note. Panel A displays predicted values of positive work-to-family spillover as a function of executive functioning at low (−1 *SD*), mean, and high (+1 *SD*) levels of supervisor support, based on the MIDUS 3 supervisor moderation model (Table 26). Panel B displays the Johnson-Neyman region of significance. The interaction term was significant ($B = 0.12$, $SE = 0.05$, $p = .007$, 95% CI [0.03, 0.21]); the implied simple slope of executive functioning was negative at low supervisor support (approximately −0.15), near zero at average support (−0.04), and slightly positive at high support (approximately 0.07). Executive functioning is shown in standardized units.

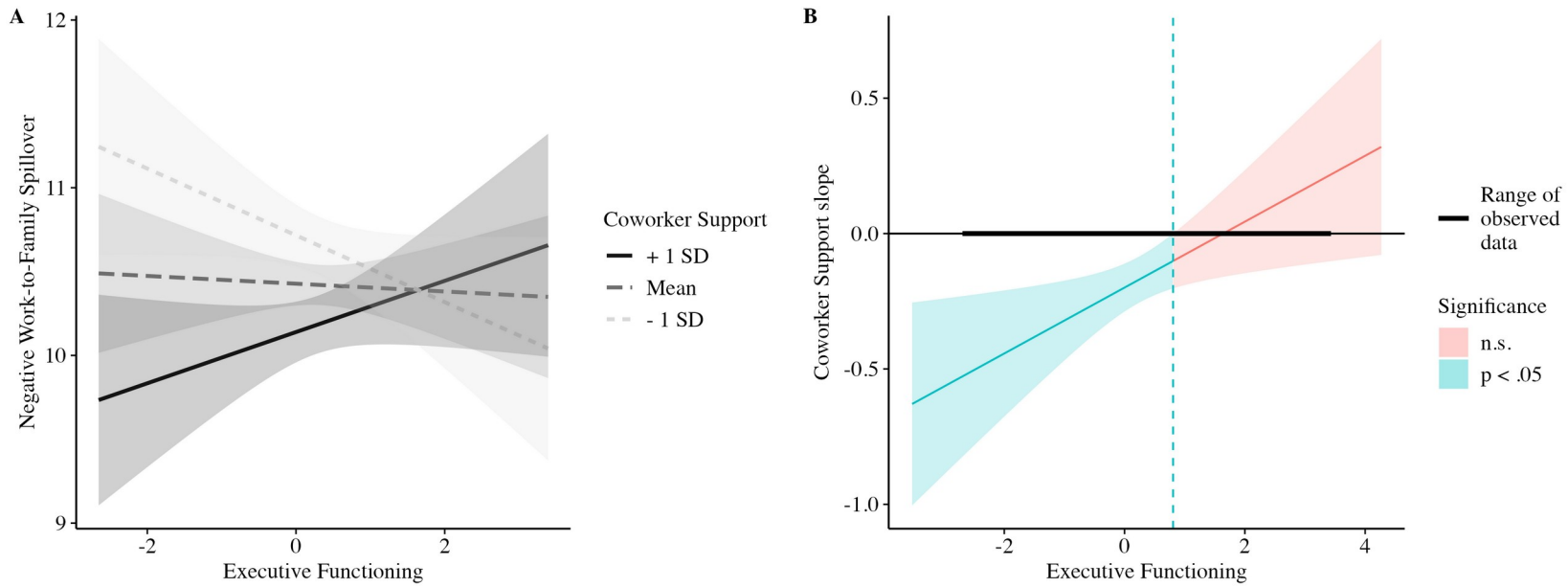


Figure 3

Interaction of Executive Functioning and Coworker Support Predicting Negative Work-to-Family Spillover (MIDUS 2)

Note. Panel A displays predicted values of negative work-to-family spillover as a function of executive functioning at low (−1 *SD*), mean, and high (+1 *SD*) levels of coworker support, based on the MIDUS 2 coworker moderation model (Table 29). Panel B displays the Johnson-Neyman region of significance. The interaction term was significant ($B = 0.06$, $SE = 0.03$, $p = .013$, 95% CI [0.01, 0.11]); the implied simple slope of executive functioning was slightly negative at low coworker support and slightly positive at high coworker support, with no individual simple slope reaching conventional significance. Executive functioning is shown in standardized units.

CHAPTER 5

DISCUSSION

Neurodiversity in the workplace has received increased attention in the organizational sciences (LeFevre-Levy et al., 2023). While much of this focus has examined behavior within the work domain, it is important to recognize that the boundaries between work and non-work are permeable and subject to carry-over effects when transitioning between domains. This research sought to elucidate the relationship between executive functioning and work-family spillover, as well as examine the moderating effects of gender and social support on this relationship. This research is particularly important given that neurocognitive deficits represent the most common type of disability among working adults in the United States (CDC, 2023). Across 40 regression models tested in two independent samples of employed respondents from the Midlife in the United States study (MIDUS 2: N = 1,289; MIDUS 3: N = 729), the results overwhelmingly did not support the hypothesized relationships between executive functioning and work-family spillover. The findings, their implications for theory and practice, and the boundary conditions of this research are discussed below.

Summary of Findings

Hypotheses 1 through 4 predicted that executive functioning would be negatively related to negative spillover (H1: work-to-family; H2: family-to-work) and positively related to positive spillover (H3: work-to-family; H4: family-to-work). None of the main effect tests across either wave reached statistical significance. In MIDUS 2, standardized coefficients for executive functioning ranged from $\beta = -.05$ (positive family-to-work, $p = .08$) to $\beta = .03$ (positive work-to-

family, $p = .38$). In MIDUS 3, standardized coefficients ranged from $\beta = -.05$ (positive family-to-work, $p = .22$) to $\beta = .04$ (negative work-to-family, $p = .16$). All observed effects were well below the minimum detectable effect sizes established in the sensitivity power analysis ($\beta = \sim.10$ for MIDUS 2; $\beta = \sim.12$ for MIDUS 3), suggesting that any true main effect of executive functioning on spillover is likely trivially small.

Hypotheses 5 and 6 predicted that gender would moderate the relationship between executive functioning and negative spillover, and research questions 1 and 2 explored gender moderation for positive spillover. In MIDUS 2, none of the gender × executive functioning interactions were statistically significant, though the interaction for negative work-to-family spillover approached significance ($B = 0.07$, $\beta = .06$, $p = .06$). In MIDUS 3, the EF × Gender interaction was significant for negative family-to-work spillover ($B = -0.14$, $\beta = -.09$, $p = .02$), indicating that the association between executive functioning and negative family-to-work spillover differed by gender. However, this effect was not significant in MIDUS 2 ($B = 0.02$, $\beta = .02$, $p = .52$) and was in the opposite direction, providing no consistent evidence for H5 or H6. RQ1 and RQ2 also revealed no replicable gender moderation of positive spillover.

The social support moderation hypotheses (H7a–H9b) and research questions (RQ3-RQ8) examined whether supervisor, coworker, and spousal support buffered the relationship between executive functioning and spillover. Of the 24 interaction tests across two waves, only two reached statistical significance, and neither replicated. In MIDUS 2, the executive functioning × coworker support interaction was significant for negative work-to-family spillover ($B = 0.06$, $\beta = .06$, $p = .01$), suggesting that the association between executive functioning and negative work-to-family spillover varied as a function of coworker support. However, this interaction was not significant in MIDUS 3 ($B = -0.04$, $\beta = -.03$, $p = .39$) and was in the

opposite direction. In MIDUS 3, the EF × supervisor support interaction was significant for positive work-to-family spillover ($B = 0.12$, $\beta = .10$, $p = .01$), but this effect was not significant in MIDUS 2 ($B = -0.03$, $\beta = -.04$, $p = .19$) and was again in the opposite direction. No spousal support interactions were significant in either wave.

Cross-wave replicability, assessed using the Open Science Collaboration (2015) criteria, was poor. None of the four executive functioning main effects reached significance in MIDUS 2, and the single executive functioning–related term that did reach significance—the EF × Coworker Support interaction for negative work-to-family spillover—did not reach significance in MIDUS 3. The multiverse analyses confirmed this pattern: across alternative specifications, including models with no covariates, demographics only, education as SES proxy, covariates modeled as moderators, and dual-earner couple subsamples, the executive functioning coefficient was overwhelmingly nonsignificant, and the few significant effects that emerged were inconsistent across waves and specifications. Taken together, the pattern of results suggests that the few significant effects observed are likely Type I errors, consistent with what would be expected by chance given the number of tests conducted.

Theoretical Implications

The null main effects observed are notable given the theoretical rationale for expecting executive functioning to play a role in managing work-family boundaries. Several work-family theories suggest that individuals with more cognitive resources should be better equipped to manage cross-domain demands that require the kinds of planning, inhibition, and cognitive flexibility that executive functions support. However, the present findings suggest that executive functioning may not operate directly on the moment-to-moment behaviors and decisions through which individuals manage spillover between their work and non-work domains. As noted by

Diamond (2013) and Hofmann et al. (2012), executive functioning sits further upstream of these acts and supplies the basic mental tools (i.e., inhibition, working memory, set shifting) that could support them, but whether and how those tools translate into actual spillover behavior depends on a chain of intermediate processes, such as goal selection, motivation, and situational affordances, that the present study's design cannot examine. The null findings are consistent with the possibility that executive capacity is necessary but not sufficient for managing spillover, and that what matters more directly is whether people actually use those tools in the moment. This reframing has two further theoretical implications.

The first concerns the relative strength of situational and contextual factors compared to individual cognitive differences in determining spillover. Job demands (β = .39–.54 for negative work-to-family spillover) and family demands (β = .35–.43 for negative family-to-work spillover) were far stronger predictors of spillover than individual differences in executive functioning across all models. This is consistent with a situation strength perspective (Meyer et al., 2010; Mischel, 1977), wherein strong situational demands constrain the influence of individual differences on behavior and outcomes. The implication of this finding is that executive functioning is irrelevant to spillover but that its influence may be conditional on the situational context in which boundary management occurs. Executive functioning may matter more in weak situations where individuals have greater latitude in how they manage boundaries, and matter less in strong situations where demands themselves overwhelm whatever cognitive resources individuals bring to bear. Theories of work-family spillover that center individual cognitive resources as proximal determinants may therefore need to incorporate situation strength as a moderating boundary condition, with cognitive resources mattering most precisely where situational forces are weakest.

The second concerns the role of gender in the EF–spillover relationship. The largely null and inconsistent gender moderation results contribute to a growing body of evidence suggesting that the predictors of work-family spillover may be more similar across genders than different (Shockley et al., 2017). The one significant EF × Gender interaction, for negative family-to-work spillover in MIDUS 3, did not replicate in MIDUS 2, where the interaction coefficient was in the opposite direction, providing no reliable evidence that gender amplifies the consequences of executive functioning for spillover. While gendered disparities in work-family experiences certainly exist, these disparities may be driven more by differential exposure to demands and resources, such as structural inequities in household labor distribution and workplace flexibility, than by differential vulnerability to cognitive resource limitations.

Practical Implications

The consistent, large effects of job demands on negative work-to-family spillover (β = .39–.54) suggest that organizations seeking to reduce spillover should focus on workload management. Redesigning jobs to manage workload intensity through strategies such as realistic workload expectations, adequate staffing, and autonomy over task scheduling may be among the most effective interventions. Similarly, the strong effects of family demands on negative family-to-work spillover (β = .35–.43) underscore the value of organizational policies that accommodate family responsibilities, such as flexible scheduling, dependent care support, and family leave policies.

At the organizational level, the findings underscore the importance of social support in work-family dynamics. The main effects of supervisor support, coworker support, and spousal support were consistent with prior literature across both waves, such that each form of support was negatively associated with negative spillover and positively associated with positive

spillover. These findings are consistent with French et al.'s (2018) meta-analytic findings and suggest that social support operates as a direct resource for managing work-family demands. Organizations seeking to reduce work-family spillover and foster a more supportive work environment should consider investing in supervisor training for family-supportive behaviors (Hammer et al., 2011), fostering supportive team norms, and creating structures that facilitate coworker support. Furthermore, human resource practices such as job crafting (i.e., employee-initiated changes to the tasks, relational boundaries, or cognitive framing of one's work; Wrzesniewski & Dutton, 2001), role design (i.e., the formal structuring of job content and responsibilities by the organization), or idiosyncratic deals (commonly called "i-deals," referring to individually negotiated employment arrangements that differ from standard terms in scope, flexibility, or scheduling; Rousseau, 2005) could be tailored to address the situational factors that this study identified as the primary drivers of spillover, rather than targeting individual cognitive characteristics.

For organizations concerned about supporting employees with executive functioning difficulties or neurocognitive disabilities, the environmental factors identified in the neurodiversity literature offer a more promising path than cognitive intervention. Flexible work arrangements such as remote work and adjustable scheduling, assistive technologies for task management and time tracking, and mentorship programs within a broadly inclusive workplace culture all support employees with executive functioning challenges while benefiting the workforce more generally (Lefevre-Levy et al., 2023). The key insight from the present study is that these environmental and structural supports are likely effective not because they compensate for cognitive deficits that drive spillover, but because they directly address the situational demands and support deficits that actually do.

Limitations and Future Directions

Several limitations should be considered when interpreting these findings. First, the BTACT is a telephone-administered cognitive assessment designed for population-level research, and while it has demonstrated adequate psychometric properties (Lachman et al., 2014), it assesses a broad composite of cognitive abilities through brief, structured tasks such as recalling digit strings backward, generating words within a category, or completing number series. Such low-fidelity exercises are disconnected from how executive functioning manifests in the daily management of work and family roles, and this gap between standardized assessments and real-world executive functioning performance has been noted in the neuropsychological literature more broadly (Chaytor & Schmitter-Edgecombe, 2003; Sbordone, 2008). A null association between BTACT scores and spillover may therefore reflect a mismatch between what the measure captures and what the theoretical mechanism requires, rather than evidence against the role of executive functioning in spillover. Future research would benefit from measures that more closely approximate the real-world cognitive demands of boundary management, such as performance-based assessments that simulate competing work and family task demands or ecological momentary assessment of cognitive load during role transitions.

Second, the cross-sectional, between-person design of this study is poorly suited to capturing the dynamic processes through which executive functioning may influence spillover. Work-family spillover is inherently episodic, unfolding within and across days as individuals transition between role demands (Allen et al., 2019; Ilies et al., 2007; Williams & Alliger, 1994), and executive functioning itself fluctuates within persons with sleep (Lim & Dinges, 2010), acute stress (Arnsten, 2009; Shields et al., 2016), time of day and circadian phase (Schmidt et al., 2007), and cumulative cognitive load over the workday (Hockey, 2013). An individual's average

level of executive functioning assessed at a single time point may bear little resemblance to the momentary cognitive resource fluctuations that shape whether a difficult workday spills over into a tense evening at home. Within-person diary designs offer a particularly promising alternative. Daily diary or experience sampling studies could assess morning cognitive functioning (e.g., via brief mobile assessments of working memory or attentional control), daily work and family demands, and end-of-day spillover, allowing researchers to test whether within-person days when an individual experiences greater cognitive depletion are also days when spillover is more pronounced (Sonnentag & Fritz, 2015). This approach would disentangle whether executive functioning matters for spillover as a stable individual difference, which the present study suggests it does not, or as a fluctuating daily resource, which remains an open question. Such designs could also capture the temporal dynamics of spillover, such as whether cognitive depletion at the end of the workday predicts negative mood or conflict during the evening, and whether recovery processes (e.g., sleep, leisure) restore cognitive resources that buffer against spillover the following day.

Third, the null findings in this study may partly reflect the limitations of quantitative survey methods for understanding a phenomenon that is highly context-dependent. Qualitative research designs could provide critical insight into the specific incidents and processes through which executive functioning difficulties lead to spillover in everyday life. Critical incident interviews with individuals who have diagnosed executive functioning difficulties (e.g., ADHD) or their partners could illuminate the concrete moments, such as the forgotten school pickup, the inability to disengage from a work problem during family time, or the emotional outburst triggered by accumulated cognitive overload, that quantitative spillover scales may aggregate away. Such research could identify the specific executive processes most relevant to boundary

management failures, inform the development of more ecologically valid measures, and generate hypotheses about when and for whom executive functioning is most consequential for spillover. Qualitative approaches could also surface compensatory strategies that individuals with executive functioning challenges use to manage spillover, which may obscure the EF–spillover relationship in cross-sectional quantitative designs if those strategies are effective.

Fourth, the composition of the analytic sample likely constrains the range of executive functioning observed and therefore the effects that could be detected. The clinical conditions most strongly characterized by executive dysfunction, particularly attention-deficit/hyperactivity disorder (ADHD), have low base rates in the general population to begin with, with adult prevalence estimated at 4–5% (Kessler et al., 2006), and several features of the MIDUS sample plausibly lower that rate further. Study participation itself requires the organizational and follow-through capacities that individuals with significant executive dysfunction may struggle with, and the analytic sample's inclusion criteria compound this restriction. Participants had to be currently employed and partnered, two life circumstances that adults with severe executive dysfunction often have difficulty maintaining given elevated rates of job instability and unemployment (Barkley & Murphy, 2010; Küpper et al., 2012) and of relationship dissolution and marital difficulty (Eakin et al., 2004) in this population. The very individuals for whom theories of cognitive resource depletion and boundary management failure would predict the largest EF–spillover effects are therefore systematically less likely to appear in the analytic sample. Prior research linking executive dysfunction to adverse outcomes in adjacent domains has typically examined individuals with diagnosed conditions (Fletcher, 2014), not the subclinical variation present in a community sample, and the absence of significant effects in the present study may therefore reflect a floor effect: executive functioning may only meaningfully predict spillover

when it falls below a functional threshold that few MIDUS participants are likely to reach. Future research examining populations with clinically significant executive dysfunction would speak more directly to this possibility. The MIDUS sample is also predominantly White and middle-aged, further limiting generalizability, and the relatively advantaged household income in the analytic samples (M = $94,810 in MIDUS 2; $122,059 in MIDUS 3) may attenuate effects if financial stress is a mechanism through which cognitive limitations influence spillover.

Fifth, listwise deletion resulted in analytic samples substantially reduced from the full MIDUS samples. The analytic samples of 1,289 (MIDUS 2) and 729 (MIDUS 3) provided adequate power to detect standardized coefficients of approximately $\beta = .10$ and $\beta = .12$, respectively. Given that the observed main effects were consistently smaller than these thresholds ($|\beta| \leq .053$), the null findings are unlikely to be attributable to insufficient power alone, though it remains possible that very small true effects exist below the study's detection threshold.

Sixth, all spillover measures were self-report, raising the possibility that shared method variance or differences in self-insight could influence the observed relationships. Individuals with lower executive functioning may also have less accurate self-perceptions of their spillover experiences, which could attenuate observed associations. Multi-source designs incorporating partner or supervisor reports of spillover behaviors could address this limitation.

Seventh, the inclusion of job and family demands as statistical controls may have obscured smaller EF effects by absorbing variance that EF could otherwise have explained, particularly to the extent that EF and demands are theoretically intertwined (e.g., individuals with stronger EF may experience the same objective workload as less demanding, or may select into roles with different demand profiles). Future research could productively reframe job and family

demands not as controls but as moderators, testing the hypothesis that EF matters most when demands are high and resources for managing them are most taxed. Such a specification would treat the demands-by-EF interaction as a substantive boundary condition rather than a nuisance to be partialled out, and would speak more directly to the situation strength account advanced in the Theoretical Implications section.

The examination of boundary conditions in this study was intended to shed light on the role that one's work and home environment play in enhancing positive spillover and mitigating negative spillover. While the moderation hypotheses were largely not supported, the consistent main effects of social support across models and waves provide clear evidence that these environmental factors matter. Future research should also consider examining specific facets of executive functioning (e.g., inhibitory control, working memory updating) rather than the composite and investigating whether executive functioning moderates the effectiveness of boundary management strategies rather than directly predicting spillover.

Conclusion

This study represents the first direct empirical examination of the relationship between executive functioning and work-family spillover. Despite strong theoretical rationale for expecting executive functioning to predict spillover outcomes, the results across two independent samples, 40 primary models, and comprehensive multiverse analyses indicate that the general executive functioning composite measured by the BTACT does not meaningfully predict negative or positive spillover between work and family domains. The few significant moderation effects that emerged, involving gender, coworker support, and supervisor support, were each isolated to a single wave and outcome and did not replicate, while spousal support showed no moderation in either wave. The findings underscore the primacy of environmental factors,

particularly job demands, family demands, and social support, in shaping work-family spillover experiences. By understanding these factors, organizations can develop support systems to help employees maintain a healthy work-life balance, reduce turnover and absenteeism, and enhance overall employee engagement and job satisfaction, ultimately contributing to a healthier and more productive workforce. While the null findings for executive functioning do not preclude the possibility that more specific or proximally measured cognitive processes relate to spillover, they provide an important corrective to the assumption that broad cognitive differences are a primary driver of work-family outcomes.

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APPENDIX

Multiverse Analyses

To assess the robustness of the primary findings, a multiverse analysis was conducted in which the executive functioning–spillover relationship was estimated across several alternative analytic specifications. These specifications were organized into four arms: (A) covariate variations (no covariates, demographics only, education as SES indicator); (B) covariate × EF interactions (age, education, income, job demands, and family demands each interacted with EF, for all four spillover outcomes); (C) dual-earner couples (restricting the sample to households where both the respondent and spouse were employed, running all 20 regression models as a robustness check); and (D) model-set specific complete-case samples. Results are presented in Table A1, which also reports cross-wave replicability.

In MIDUS 2 (Table A1), when no covariates were included, executive functioning was positively related to both negative work-to-family spillover ($B = 0.06$, $\beta = .08$, $p < .001$) and negative family-to-work spillover ($B = 0.06$, $\beta = .09$, $p < .001$). However, these effects disappeared once any control variables were introduced. In the covariate interaction arm, the Age × EF interaction was significant for positive work-to-family spillover ($B = -0.004$, $\beta = -.30$, $p = .020$), and the Family Demands × EF interaction was significant for negative family-to-work spillover ($B = 0.002$, $\beta = .05$, $p = .023$). In the dual-earner arm, executive functioning was significantly related to positive family-to-work spillover ($B = -0.057$, $p = .031$), and the EF × Supervisor Support interaction was significant for the same outcome ($B = -0.063$, $p = .020$).

In MIDUS 3 (Table A1), the no-covariate models again showed significant positive associations between executive functioning and negative work-to-family spillover ($B = 0.14$, $p < .001$) and negative family-to-work spillover ($B = 0.06$, $p < .05$). A small number of covariate-as-moderator and dual-earner specifications produced isolated significant effects, but none corresponded to the specifications that reached significance in MIDUS 2, indicating no consistent cross-wave pattern.

Cross-wave replicability of the multiverse results (Table A1) was evaluated using the same OSC (2015) criteria applied to the primary analyses. Of the eleven specifications that produced significant effects in MIDUS 2, seven showed the same sign in MIDUS 3 (63.6%), two reached significance with the same sign in the second wave (18.2%), and both of the effects that were significant in both waves had overlapping confidence intervals (100.0%). Notably, the no-covariate models for negative work-to-family and negative family-to-work spillover met all three replicability criteria. These results suggest that the positive zero-order association between executive functioning and negative spillover is replicable but is fully attenuated by the inclusion of covariates, reinforcing the primary finding that executive functioning does not have a robust or unique relationship with work-family spillover.

Power Analysis

Because sample size was determined by the existing MIDUS dataset rather than a priori power calculations, a sensitivity power analysis was conducted to determine the minimum detectable effect sizes and statistical power across the analytic samples (Tables A4 and A5). At 80% power with $\alpha = .05$, the MIDUS 2 sample ($N = 1{,}289$) could detect a minimum effect of $f^2 = .01$ ($\Delta R^2 = .01$) for main effect models and $f^2 = .01$ ($\Delta R^2 = .01$) for two-way interaction models, both well below Cohen's (1988) threshold for a small effect ($f^2 = .02$). The MIDUS 3 sample (*n*

= 729) required somewhat larger effects for adequate power: f^2 = .02 (ΔR^2 = .02) for main effects and f^2 = .02 (ΔR^2 = .02) for two-way interactions, approximating the small effect benchmark. Expressed in terms of standardized regression coefficients (Table A4), the MIDUS 2 sample had 80% power to detect coefficients of approximately β = .10 or larger across main effect and interaction models (assuming R^2_x = .30 for the focal predictor), whereas the MIDUS 3 sample required standardized coefficients of approximately β = .12 or larger to achieve comparable power. At a small conventional effect size of f^2 = .02, MIDUS 2 provided 97.8% power for main effects and 96.6% for two-way interactions, while MIDUS 3 provided 80.3% and 75.9%, respectively. Both samples were well-powered (> 99%) to detect effects of f^2 = .05 or larger. These results indicate that MIDUS 2 had excellent power to detect even small effects, while MIDUS 3 had adequate power for main effects at the small benchmark but was slightly underpowered for interaction terms at that threshold.

Confirmatory Factor Analysis and Measurement Invariance

To evaluate the measurement structure of the work-family spillover items, confirmatory factor analyses were conducted specifying a four-factor model corresponding to the four spillover dimensions: negative work-to-family, negative family-to-work, positive work-to-family, and positive family-to-work. Each factor was indicated by four items, for a total of 16 observed indicators. Model fit indices are presented in Table A6, with standardized factor loadings and latent factor correlations reported in Tables A2 and A3.

In MIDUS 2, the four-factor model yielded a significant chi-square test, $\chi^2(98) = 1769.25$, $p < .001$, which is expected given the large sample size. Approximate fit indices indicated marginal model fit: CFI = .84, TLI = .80, RMSEA = .09, 90% *CI* [.086, .093], SRMR = .09. Although these values fell below conventional thresholds for good fit (CFI > .95, RMSEA < .06;

Hu & Bentler, 1999), the four-factor structure was retained given strong theoretical justification and the well-established use of these scales in MIDUS research. Standardized factor loadings (Table A2) ranged from .306 to .905, with the majority exceeding .50. The weakest loading was observed for item B1SF27N on the positive family-to-work factor ($\lambda = .31$), while the strongest was item B1SF27O on the same factor ($\lambda = .91$). Latent factor correlations (Table A3) revealed a strong positive association between the two negative spillover dimensions ($r = .64$, $p < .001$) and a moderate positive association between the two positive spillover dimensions ($r = .39$, $p < .001$).

Cross-valence correlations were weak, with negative work-to-family spillover showing a small negative correlation with positive family-to-work spillover ($r = -.12$, $p < .001$).

In MIDUS 3, the four-factor model showed a similar pattern, $\chi^2(98) = 1061.28$, $p < .001$, with slightly improved fit relative to MIDUS 2: CFI = .86, TLI = .83, RMSEA = .09, 90% *CI* [.081, .090], SRMR = .09. Standardized factor loadings (Table A2) ranged from .237 to .863, again with the positive family-to-work item C1SF40N showing the weakest loading ($\lambda = .237$) and C1SF40O the strongest ($\lambda = .86$). Latent factor correlations (Table A3) were consistent with MIDUS 2: the two negative spillover dimensions were strongly correlated (r = .67, $p < .001$), and the two positive dimensions were moderately correlated ($r = .49$, $p < .001$). The negative association between negative family-to-work and positive family-to-work spillover was somewhat stronger in MIDUS 3 ($r = -.29$, $p < .001$) than in MIDUS 2 ($r = -.17$, $p < .001$).

Measurement invariance across gender was evaluated using a sequential model comparison approach (Tables A7 and A8). In MIDUS 2, configural invariance was established as the baseline model, CFI = .83, RMSEA = .09. Metric invariance (equal factor loadings) was supported, ΔCFI = .00, ΔRMSEA = .00, meeting Chen's (2007) criterion of ΔCFI < .010. Scalar invariance (equal intercepts) was also supported, ΔCFI = −.01, ΔRMSEA < .001, as was strict

invariance (equal residual variances), ΔCFI = −.01, ΔRMSEA = .00. In MIDUS 3, the same pattern held: metric invariance (ΔCFI = .00), scalar invariance (ΔCFI = −.01), and strict invariance (ΔCFI = .00) were all supported. These results indicate that the four-factor spillover measurement model operated equivalently across men and women in both waves, justifying the inclusion of gender as a moderator in the regression analyses without concern for differential measurement properties

Table A1

Multiverse Specification Curve Replicability Results Across MIDUS 2 and MIDUS 3

Specification	Outcome	Term	MIDUS 2 *B* [95% CI]	MIDUS 3 *B* [95% CI]	Sign	Sig	CI
No covariates (EF only)	NWF	EF	0.06 [0.03, 0.09]***	0.14 [0.07, 0.19]***	✓	✓	✓
No covariates (EF only)	NFW	EF	0.06 [0.03, 0.09]***	0.06 [0.01, 0.11]*	✓	✓	✓
No covariates (EF only)	PWF	EF	0.01 [-0.02, 0.04]	-0.05 [-0.11, 0.01]	—	—	—
No covariates (EF only)	PFW	EF	-0.02 [-0.05, 0.02]	-0.04 [-0.10, 0.02]	—	—	—
Demographic covariates only (no work or family demand variables)	NWF	EF	-0.02 [-0.05, 0.02]	0.00 [-0.07, 0.07]	—	—	—
Demographic covariates only (no work or family demand variables)	NFW	EF	0.00 [-0.03, 0.03]	-0.02 [-0.07, 0.03]	—	—	—
Demographic covariates only (no work or family demand variables)	PWF	EF	-0.02 [-0.06, 0.02]	-0.05 [-0.12, 0.02]	—	—	—
Demographic covariates only (no work or family demand variables)	PFW	EF	-0.03 [-0.07, 0.00]	-0.06 [-0.12, 0.01]	—	—	—
Education-only SES indicator (income excluded)	NWF	EF	0.00 [-0.03, 0.04]	0.02 [-0.04, 0.08]	—	—	—
Education-only SES indicator (income excluded)	NFW	EF	0.03 [0.00, 0.05]	-0.02 [-0.07, 0.03]	—	—	—
Education-only SES indicator (income excluded)	PWF	EF	0.01 [-0.03, 0.05]	-0.05 [-0.12, 0.03]	—	—	—
Education-only SES indicator (income excluded)	PFW	EF	-0.04 [-0.08, 0.00]	-0.05 [-0.12, 0.02]	—	—	—
All covariates except job demands and family demands	NWF	EF	-0.02 [-0.05, 0.02]	0.00 [-0.07, 0.07]	—	—	—
All covariates except job demands and family demands	NFW	EF	0.00 [-0.03, 0.03]	-0.02 [-0.07, 0.03]	—	—	—
All covariates except job demands and family demands	PWF	EF	-0.02 [-0.06, 0.02]	-0.05 [-0.12, 0.02]	—	—	—
All covariates except job demands and family demands	PFW	EF	-0.03 [-0.07, 0.00]	-0.06 [-0.12, 0.01]	—	—	—

Specification	Outcome	Term	MIDUS 2 *B* [95% CI]	MIDUS 3 *B* [95% CI]	Sign	Sig	CI
All covariates except household variables (income, size)	NWF	EF	0.00 [-0.03, 0.04]	0.02 [-0.04, 0.08]	—	—	—
All covariates except household variables (income, size)	NFW	EF	0.03 [0.00, 0.06]	-0.02 [-0.07, 0.03]	—	—	—
All covariates except household variables (income, size)	PWF	EF	0.01 [-0.03, 0.05]	-0.05 [-0.12, 0.03]	—	—	—
All covariates except household variables (income, size)	PFW	EF	-0.04 [-0.08, 0.00]	-0.05 [-0.12, 0.02]	—	—	—
All covariates except respondent demographics (age, gender, education)	NWF	EF	0.02 [-0.01, 0.05]	0.07 [0.01, 0.12]*	—	—	—
All covariates except respondent demographics (age, gender, education)	NFW	EF	0.03 [0.00, 0.06]*	0.02 [-0.03, 0.07]	✓	✗	—
All covariates except respondent demographics (age, gender, education)	PWF	EF	0.03 [-0.01, 0.07]	-0.06 [-0.14, 0.01]	—	—	—
All covariates except respondent demographics (age, gender, education)	PFW	EF	-0.01 [-0.05, 0.02]	-0.06 [-0.12, 0.01]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Age interaction	NWF	EF	0.00 [-0.16, 0.16]	-0.03 [-0.38, 0.31]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Age interaction	NWF	EF × Age	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	0.00 [-0.01, 0.01]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Age interaction	NFW	EF	0.06 [-0.08, 0.20]	-0.13 [-0.43, 0.17]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Age interaction	NFW	EF × Age	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	0.00 [0.00, 0.01]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Age interaction	PWF	EF	0.23 [0.04, 0.43]*	-0.19 [-0.63, 0.25]	✗	✗	—
Full covariate model with EF × Age interaction	PWF	EF × Age	0.00 [-0.01, 0.00]*	0.00 [-0.01, 0.01]	✗	✗	—

Specification	Outcome	Term	MIDUS 2 *B* [95% CI]	MIDUS 3 *B* [95% CI]	Sign	Sig	CI
Full covariate model with EF × Age interaction	PFW	EF	-0.05 [-0.24, 0.14]	-0.30 [-0.71, 0.11]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Age interaction	PFW	EF × Age	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	0.00 [0.00, 0.01]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Education interaction	NWF	EF	-0.09 [-0.18, 0.01]	0.13 [-0.06, 0.32]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Education interaction	NWF	EF × Education	0.01 [0.00, 0.02]	-0.01 [-0.04, 0.01]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Education interaction	NFW	EF	-0.04 [-0.13, 0.04]	-0.08 [-0.24, 0.09]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Education interaction	NFW	EF × Education	0.01 [0.00, 0.02]	0.01 [-0.01, 0.03]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Education interaction	PWF	EF	0.06 [-0.06, 0.18]	-0.12 [-0.36, 0.13]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Education interaction	PWF	EF × Education	-0.01 [-0.02, 0.01]	0.01 [-0.02, 0.04]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Education interaction	PFW	EF	0.00 [-0.12, 0.12]	0.03 [-0.19, 0.26]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Education interaction	PFW	EF × Education	-0.01 [-0.02, 0.01]	-0.01 [-0.04, 0.02]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Income interaction	NWF	EF	0.02 [-0.03, 0.07]	0.07 [-0.03, 0.17]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Income interaction	NWF	EF × Income	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Income interaction	NFW	EF	0.02 [-0.03, 0.07]	0.04 [-0.05, 0.12]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Income interaction	NFW	EF × Income	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Income interaction	PWF	EF	0.03 [-0.04, 0.09]	-0.04 [-0.17, 0.09]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Income interaction	PWF	EF × Income	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	—	—	—

Specification	Outcome	Term	MIDUS 2 *B* [95% CI]	MIDUS 3 *B* [95% CI]	Sign	Sig	CI
Full covariate model with EF × Income interaction	PFW	EF	-0.04 [-0.10, 0.03]	-0.03 [-0.15, 0.10]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Income interaction	PFW	EF × Income	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Job Demands interaction	NWF	EF	0.00 [-0.03, 0.03]	0.03 [-0.04, 0.09]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Job Demands interaction	NWF	EF × Job Demands	0.01 [-0.04, 0.05]	-0.07 [-0.15, 0.01]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Job Demands interaction	NFW	EF	0.02 [-0.01, 0.05]	-0.02 [-0.07, 0.03]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Job Demands interaction	NFW	EF × Job Demands	-0.04 [-0.08, 0.00]	-0.09 [-0.16, -0.02]*	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Job Demands interaction	PWF	EF	0.01 [-0.03, 0.05]	-0.04 [-0.12, 0.04]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Job Demands interaction	PWF	EF × Job Demands	0.01 [-0.05, 0.06]	0.06 [-0.05, 0.16]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Job Demands interaction	PFW	EF	-0.04 [-0.08, 0.00]	-0.04 [-0.12, 0.03]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Job Demands interaction	PFW	EF × Job Demands	0.03 [-0.02, 0.09]	0.08 [-0.02, 0.18]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Family Demands interaction	NWF	EF	0.00 [-0.03, 0.04]	0.03 [-0.03, 0.09]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Family Demands interaction	NWF	EF × Family Demands	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Family Demands interaction	NFW	EF	0.02 [-0.01, 0.05]	-0.02 [-0.07, 0.04]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Family Demands interaction	NFW	EF × Family Demands	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]*	0.00 [-0.01, 0.00]	✗	✗	—
Full covariate model with EF × Family Demands interaction	PWF	EF	0.01 [-0.03, 0.05]	-0.04 [-0.12, 0.03]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Family Demands interaction	PWF	EF × Family Demands	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	0.00 [-0.01, 0.00]	—	—	—

Specification	Outcome	Term	MIDUS 2 *B* [95% CI]	MIDUS 3 *B* [95% CI]	Sign	Sig	CI
Full covariate model with EF × Family Demands interaction	PFW	EF	-0.04 [-0.07, 0.01]	-0.05 [-0.12, 0.03]	—	—	—
Full covariate model with EF × Family Demands interaction	PFW	EF × Family Demands	0.00 [0.00, 0.00]	0.00 [0.00, 0.01]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: main effects	NWF	EF	-0.02 [-0.07, 0.02]	0.00 [-0.09, 0.09]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: main effects	NFW	EF	0.01 [-0.03, 0.05]	-0.07 [-0.14, 0.01]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: main effects	PWF	EF	0.04 [-0.01, 0.09]	0.01 [-0.09, 0.12]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: main effects	PFW	EF	-0.06 [-0.11, -0.01]*	-0.04 [-0.13, 0.06]	✓	✗	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Gender moderation	NFW	EF	0.03 [-0.09, 0.14]	0.11 [-0.10, 0.31]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Gender moderation	NFW	EF × Gender	-0.01 [-0.08, 0.07]	-0.12 [-0.27, 0.02]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Gender moderation	NWF	EF	-0.12 [-0.25, 0.01]	0.07 [-0.17, 0.32]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Gender moderation	NWF	EF × Gender	0.07 [-0.02, 0.15]	-0.05 [-0.22, 0.12]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Gender moderation	PFW	EF	-0.05 [-0.20, 0.09]	-0.28 [-0.56, 0.00]*	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Gender moderation	PFW	EF × Gender	0.00 [-0.10, 0.09]	0.18 [-0.01, 0.37]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Gender moderation	PWF	EF	-0.03 [-0.17, 0.12]	-0.23 [-0.52, 0.06]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Gender moderation	PWF	EF × Gender	0.05 [-0.04, 0.14]	0.18 [-0.02, 0.38]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Supervisor support moderation	NFW	EF	0.01 [-0.03, 0.05]	-0.06 [-0.14, 0.01]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Supervisor support moderation	NFW	EF × Supervisor Support	0.04 [-0.01, 0.08]	0.06 [-0.01, 0.14]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Supervisor support moderation	NWF	EF	-0.02 [-0.07, 0.02]	0.02 [-0.07, 0.10]	—	—	—

Specification	Outcome	Term	MIDUS 2 *B* [95% CI]	MIDUS 3 *B* [95% CI]	Sign	Sig	CI
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Supervisor support moderation	NWF	EF × Supervisor Support	0.00 [-0.04, 0.05]	-0.01 [-0.09, 0.08]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Supervisor support moderation	PFW	EF	-0.06 [-0.11, -0.01]*	-0.04 [-0.14, 0.05]	✓	✗	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Supervisor support moderation	PFW	EF × Supervisor Support	-0.06 [-0.12, -0.01]*	0.05 [-0.06, 0.15]	✗	✗	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Supervisor support moderation	PWF	EF	0.04 [-0.01, 0.09]	0.00 [-0.10, 0.10]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Supervisor support moderation	PWF	EF × Supervisor Support	-0.05 [-0.10, 0.01]	0.18 [0.07, 0.28]***	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Coworker support moderation	NFW	EF	0.01 [-0.03, 0.05]	-0.07 [-0.14, 0.01]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Coworker support moderation	NFW	EF × Coworker Support	0.00 [-0.05, 0.05]	0.04 [-0.04, 0.12]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Coworker support moderation	NWF	EF	-0.02 [-0.07, 0.02]	0.01 [-0.08, 0.10]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Coworker support moderation	NWF	EF × Coworker Support	0.05 [-0.01, 0.11]	-0.06 [-0.16, 0.04]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Coworker support moderation	PFW	EF	-0.06 [-0.11, 0.00]*	-0.04 [-0.14, 0.05]	✓	✗	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Coworker support moderation	PFW	EF × Coworker Support	-0.05 [-0.12, 0.02]	0.04 [-0.07, 0.16]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Coworker support moderation	PWF	EF	0.04 [-0.01, 0.09]	0.01 [-0.10, 0.11]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Coworker support moderation	PWF	EF × Coworker Support	-0.02 [-0.09, 0.04]	0.08 [-0.04, 0.20]	—	—	—

Specification	Outcome	Term	MIDUS 2 *B* [95% CI]	MIDUS 3 *B* [95% CI]	Sign	Sig	CI
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Spousal support moderation	NFW	EF	0.01 [-0.03, 0.05]	-0.07 [-0.14, 0.00]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Spousal support moderation	NFW	EF × Spousal Support	0.03 [-0.05, 0.11]	-0.05 [-0.16, 0.06]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Spousal support moderation	NWF	EF	-0.02 [-0.07, 0.02]	0.00 [-0.09, 0.08]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Spousal support moderation	NWF	EF × Spousal Support	0.03 [-0.06, 0.12]	-0.09 [-0.22, 0.04]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Spousal support moderation	PFW	EF	-0.05 [-0.10, -0.01]*	-0.03 [-0.12, 0.05]	✓	✗	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Spousal support moderation	PFW	EF × Spousal Support	0.04 [-0.06, 0.13]	-0.01 [-0.14, 0.12]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Spousal support moderation	PWF	EF	0.04 [-0.01, 0.09]	0.02 [-0.09, 0.12]	—	—	—
Dual-earner subsample: EF × Spousal support moderation	PWF	EF × Spousal Support	-0.02 [-0.12, 0.08]	0.01 [-0.14, 0.16]	—	—	—
Step 1: Same sign (of 11 sig in MIDUS 2)					*7/11 (63.6%)*		
Step 2: Same sign + significant (of 11 sig in MIDUS 2)						*2/11 (18.2%)*	
Step 3: Overlapping CIs (of 2 sig in both)							*2/2 (100.0%)*

Note. Outcome acronyms: NWF = negative work-to-family spillover; NFW = negative family-to-work spillover; PWF = positive work-to-family spillover; PFW = positive family-to-work spillover. EF = executive functioning. Replicability assessed using the Open Science Collaboration (2015) criteria. Step 1: percentage of MIDUS 2-significant effects with the same sign in MIDUS 3. Step 2: percentage of MIDUS 2-significant effects that are also significant and same sign in MIDUS 3. Step 3: percentage of effects significant in both waves with overlapping 95% CIs. ✓ = criterion met. ✗ = criterion not met. — = not applicable.
*$p < .05$. **$p < .01$. ***$p < .001$.

Table A2

Standardized Factor Loadings Across Waves

Factor	Item (M2)	λ	*SE*	Item (M3)	λ	*SE*
Negative Work-to-Family	B1SF27A	0.60	0.02	C1SF40A	0.67	0.02
	B1SF27B	0.81	0.01	C1SF40B	0.82	0.01
	B1SF27C	0.68	0.01	C1SF40C	0.74	0.01
	B1SF27D	0.73	0.01	C1SF40D	0.81	0.01
Positive Work-to-Family	B1SF27E	0.71	0.02	C1SF40E	0.65	0.02
	B1SF27F	0.71	0.02	C1SF40F	0.73	0.02
	B1SF27G	0.40	0.02	C1SF40G	0.53	0.02
	B1SF27H	0.57	0.02	C1SF40H	0.61	0.02
Negative Family-to-Work	B1SF27I	0.59	0.02	C1SF40I	0.63	0.02
	B1SF27J	0.75	0.01	C1SF40J	0.73	0.02
	B1SF27K	0.63	0.02	C1SF40K	0.63	0.02
	B1SF27L	0.76	0.01	C1SF40L	0.67	0.02
Positive Family-to-Work	B1SF27M	0.46	0.02	C1SF40M	0.45	0.03
	B1SF27N	0.31	0.02	C1SF40N	0.24	0.03
	B1SF27O	0.91	0.02	C1SF40O	0.86	0.02
	B1SF27P	0.67	0.02	C1SF40P	0.73	0.02

Note. λ = standardized factor loading. All loadings significant at $p < .001$. M2 = MIDUS 2 (N = 1,289); M3 = MIDUS 3 (N = 729).

Table A3

Latent Factor Correlations Across Waves

Factor 1	Factor 2	*r* (MIDUS 2)	*r* (MIDUS 3)
Negative Work-to-Family	Positive Work-to-Family	−0.05	0.01
Negative Work-to-Family	Negative Family-to-Work	0.64***	0.67***
Negative Work-to-Family	Positive Family-to-Work	−0.12***	−0.16***
Positive Work-to-Family	Negative Family-to-Work	0.09**	0.07
Positive Work-to-Family	Positive Family-to-Work	0.39***	0.49***
Negative Family-to-Work	Positive Family-to-Work	−0.17***	−0.29***

*Note. *p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001. MIDUS 2 N = 1,289; MIDUS 3 N = 729*

Table A4

Sensitivity Power Analysis: Minimum Detectable Effect Sizes

Sample	Model	k	f^2 (80%)	ΔR^2 (80%)	f^2 (90%)	ΔR^2 (90%)
MIDUS 2 (n = 1,289)	Main effect	9	0.01	.01	0.01	.01
	2-way interaction	11	0.01	.01	0.02	.01
	3-way interaction	16	0.01	.01	0.02	.02
MIDUS 3 (n = 729)	Main effect	9	0.02	.02	0.03	.03
	2-way interaction	11	0.02	.02	0.03	.03
	3-way interaction	16	0.03	.03	0.03	.03

Note. k = number of predictors in the model (including covariates and the focal effect). f^2 = Cohen's local effect size for hierarchical regression. ΔR^2 = incremental variance explained by the focal predictor or interaction term. Values represent the minimum effect size detectable at 80% and 90% power with two-tailed α = .05. Power calculations conducted using G*Power 3.1 (Faul et al., 2009).

Table A5

Sensitivity Power Analysis: Statistical Power at Conventional Effect Sizes

Sample	f^2	ΔR^2	Main effect (k = 8)	2-way (k = 10)	3-way (k = 15)
MIDUS 2 (n = 1,289)	0.01	.01	74.4%	69.6%	60.2%
	0.02	.02	97.8%	96.6%	93.4%
	0.05	.05	100.0%	100.0%	100.0%
	0.10	.09	100.0%	100.0%	100.0%
	0.15	.13	100.0%	100.0%	100.0%
MIDUS 3 (n = 729)	0.01	.01	45.4%	40.9%	33.3%
	0.02	.02	80.3%	75.9%	66.7%
	0.05	.05	99.8%	99.6%	99.0%
	0.10	.09	100.0%	100.0%	100.0%
	0.15	.13	100.0%	100.0%	100.0%

Note. k = number of predictors in the model. f^2 = Cohen's local effect size. ΔR^2 = incremental variance explained. Values represent observed power at two-tailed α = .05. Cohen's (1988) benchmarks: f^2 = .02 (small), .15 (medium), .35 (large).

Table A6

Confirmatory Factor Analysis Model Fit Indices

Model	χ^2	df	p	CFI	TLI	RMSEA	90% CI	SRMR
MIDUS 2	1769.25	98	< .001	0.839	0.803	0.089	[0.086, 0.093]	0.094
MIDUS 3	1061.28	98	< .001	0.865	0.835	0.085	[0.081, 0.090]	0.091

Note. Good fit: CFI > .95, TLI > .95, RMSEA < .06, SRMR < .08.

Table A7

Measurement Invariance Across Gender (MIDUS 2)

Level	χ^2	df	CFI	RMSEA	SRMR	ΔCFI	ΔRMSEA	Decision
Configural	1935.41	196	0.834	0.091	0.091	—	—	—
Metric	1964.99	208	0.833	0.089	0.092	-0.0017	-0.0022	Supported
Scalar	2068.65	220	0.824	0.089	0.093	-0.0087	-0.0002	Supported
Strict	2138.55	236	0.819	0.087	0.094	-0.0051	-0.0018	Supported

Note. |ΔCFI| < .01 supports invariance (Chen, 2007). Configural = same structure; Metric = equal loadings; Scalar = equal intercepts; Strict = equal residuals.

Table A8

Measurement Invariance Across Gender (MIDUS 3)

Level	χ^2	df	CFI	RMSEA	SRMR	ΔCFI	ΔRMSEA	Decision
Configural	1186.07	196	0.863	0.087	0.089	—	—	—
Metric	1208.89	208	0.862	0.085	0.090	-0.0015	-0.0021	Supported
Scalar	1269.08	220	0.855	0.084	0.091	-0.0067	-0.0004	Supported
Strict	1306.02	236	0.852	0.082	0.092	-0.0029	-0.0021	Supported

Note. |ΔCFI| < .01 supports invariance (Chen, 2007). Configural = same structure; Metric = equal loadings; Scalar = equal intercepts; Strict = equal residuals.